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THE

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VOLUME THE SIXTEENTH.

JANUARY TO JUNE,

M.DCCC.XL.

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INDEX

TO THE

NAMES AND SUBJECTS IN THE SIXTEENTH VOLUME.

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INDEX

TO THE

NAMES AND SUBJECTS IN THE SIXTEENTH VOLUME.

Abbey Church, Tewkesbury, 73
Abbey, Kirkstall, Yorkshire, 47
Abercrombie, Dr., selections from, 53, 91, 131
Accountability of Man, 219
Acquaintance with God, consequences of, 136
Adare, Limerick, town of, 225
Addison, selections from, 27, 72
Advertisements of Sir T. Smith, 175
Age, information derived from, 91
Agent, responsibility of an, 227
Algiers, some account of, and its conquest by the French, I., 33—Description of the country, 33—Sketch of its history, 33—Occupation by the French, 35—Description of the cities and towns, 37—II., 81—Inhabitants; their manners, customs, dress, &c., 83—Miscellaneous observations, 87
Almighty, protecting care of the, 135
America, sketches in, I., 117—II., 158
Ancients, ivory statues of the, 51
——— fiction of, 75
——— importance attached to omens by the, 95
——— and moderns, 139
Answers to Botanical Questions, 120
Apologues, two ancient, 67
April, month of, 132
——— ceremonies of former days, 139
Arabs, Algerine, description of, 85
Architecture, history of, 121, 209, 249
Artificial flowers in wax, 204
Arum, the common, 175
Assyrian architecture, 122
Atheism, remarks on, 175
Athenian story, 61
Aubin, St., town of, Jersey, 137
Axmouth, Devon, account of the extraordinary land-slip near, 50

Bacon, Lord, selection from, 183
Banks of the Tamar, 153, 177
Bazaars, Oriental, 145
Beards, fashion of wearing, 110
Behaviour, propriety of, 24
Bible, lines on the, 131
Bishop, selection from, 119
Blair, selection from, 219
Blomfield, Bishop, selection from, 206
Bona, town of, 82
Botanical garden at Kew, 240
——— questions, answers to, 120
Bowles, lines by, 19, 181
Brown, selections from, 14, 93, 173
Browne, M.A., Poems by, 174, 183
Burning glasses, on, 236, 245
Bycknacre Priory, Essex, 115

Calendar, the, 3
Caraccas, cow-tree of the, 229
Carthaginians, Gelon's treaty with, 159
Carthusian monks, account of the, 201
Caterpillar, the goat-moth, 184
Celandine, small, lines to the, 46
Charity, lines on, 19
Charles the First, visit of Mary de Medicis to, 76
Chartreuse, visit to the great, 202
Chelmsford, Essex, town of, 149
Child, Mrs., selection from, 24
Children, value of devotion in, 27
Chili, South America, mines of, 133
China, XI., 141
Chivalry, anecdote of the age of, 135
Christian, the true, 119
Christian era, the first, architecture of, 214
Churchyard thought, 171
Cinque-cento style of Architecture, 225
City of Washington, visit to, 158
Commerce, effects of, 120
Common yew, 239
Compasses, on proportional, 196
Conquest of Algiers by the French, 35
——— Java by the Chinese, 143
Conscience, power of, 53
——— testimony of, the best foundation of peace of mind, 192
Constantina, town of, 182
Content and Discontent contrasted, 110
Contentment, blessings of, 135
Contradictions, land of, 6
Controversy, dangers of, 181
Cosmetics, on, 27
Cossack House of Lords, 148
Counsels of Sir T. Smith, 175
Country Maid and the Pimpernel Flower, 203
Courage, anecdote illustrative of, 184
Courage to be tempered with meekness, 31
Courtesy, an Athenian story, 61
Cow-tree of the Caraccas, 229
Cowper, lines by, 91, 95
——— selection from, 183
Crabbe, lines by, 14, 69, 100, 236
——— selection from, 248
Creation, its perfections and beauties, 28
——— beauty in, 104
Credulity and superstition, 181
Cretan and the Snake, a fable, 243
Cuckoo-pint, flower so called, 175
Cunningham, selection from, 135
Custom of making April fools, 139

Daguerreotype, discovery of, 71
——— description of, 79
Dartmouth, Devonshire, town of, 188
Davy, Sir H., selections from, 181, 248
Death, lines on, 14
Debts, on the payment of, 148
Deity, omnipresence of the, 45
——— evidences of the, 159
——— remarks on the, 173
Delany, selection from, 148
Demosthenes, account of, 155
Devonshire, Torquay, in, 193
——— Oakhampton, in, 241
Dickens, selection from, 228
Discourse on Geology, 11, 42, 53
Dodsley, lines by, 227
Doric architecture, 209
Dowling, Rev. John, extract from, 207
Drilling, on military, I., 18—II., 55
Duchy of Saxe-Coburg-Gotha, 4
Duels illustrious murders, 62
Dugald Stewart, extract from, 46
Duncan, selection from, 172
Duration of the soul, 203
Duty of a good man, 234
Dyer, selection from, 104

Early gray hairs, lines on, 63
——— impressions, on, 46
Edmeston, lines by, 77
Edwards, selection from, 28
Egypt, sketches in, 130
Egyptian architecture, 122
Elgin marbles, description of, 217, 233
Enemies, on forgiveness to, 206
England, lines on, 91
Engravings copied by means of galvanism, I., 219—II., 227
Envy, effects of, illustrated, 175
Epigram from Martial, 146
Epitaph on the poet Thomson, 43
Example, 112
Expedients to transmit knowledge used by the ancients, 219
Exploit, gallant, 63
Extraordinary land-slip, near Axmouth, Devon, account of the, 50

Fable—Jackall and his friends, 55
——— Cretan and the snake, 243
Faith, Hope, and Charity, 110
Fashion of wearing beards, 110
Father Inquisitor, anecdote of a, 219
February, month of, 45
Fiction, ingenious, of the ancients, 75
Field flowers, lines on, 208
Fig-tree, the, 135
First Christian era, architecture of the, 214
First impressions, 75
Flowers, artificial, in wax, 204
——— decay of, 139
Flower-garden, beauties of a, not attainable by art, 192
Foibles, wise man's and fool's, difference between, 206
Forgiveness, on, 6, 206
Formation of character, on the, 223
French, their conquest of Algiers, 35
——— lady, anecdote of a, 139
——— Revolution, anecdote of 228,
Friend, value of a, 75
Fuller, selection from, 175

Gad-fly, the, 221
Galileo, anecdote of, 103
Gallant exploit, 63
Galvanism, engravings and medals copied by means of, 219, 227
Garden herbs, I., 22—II., 103—III., 187—IV., 195—V., 243
——— botanical, at Kew, 240
Genius and delicacy of taste, different objects of, 233
Genoa, city of, 113
Genoa, lazaretto at, 180
Genuine praise, how known, 248
Geology, discourse on, I., Nature of Geology, 11—II., Heat of the Globe, 43—III., Utility of Geology, 53
Germany, timber-floats of, 9
Gifts, new year's, 15
Gipsies of the South of France, 244
Gisborne, lines by, 157
Glances at Railroad Travelling, II., 161—Railroad locomotive engines, 161—London and Birmingham Railway, 162—Grand Junction 164—London and Southampton, 165—Great Western, 66—London and Greenwich Railway, 168
Glasses, on burning, 236, 245
Globe, heat of the, 43
Goat-moth caterpillar, 184
God, importance of acquaintance with, 136
——— poem to, 238
——— proofs of the being of a, 159
God's mercies to man, 227
Golden rules of life, 119
Gospel, influence of the, 77
Government of China, 141
Grand Junction Railway, 164
Gray hairs, early, lines on, 63
Great pyramid, night on the, 130
Great Western Railway, 166
Grecian architecture, 125
Green, lines by, 135
Guernsey and Serk, islands of, 105

Hall, Bishop, selection from, 203
Hamilton, Miss, selection from, 53
Handkerchiefs, Bandana, manufacture of, 91
Hankinson, lines by, 159, 206
Happiness, the result of various kinds of feelings, 14
Hawkins, Dr., extract from, 4
Heat of the globe, 43
Heaven, the possession of, the great hold of a Christian, 222
Helvetius, selection from, 21
Herbs, on Garden, I., 22—II., 103—III., 187—IV., 195—V., 243
Hermit, story of the, 29
——— poem by Parnell, 30
Herrick, poem on the daffodil, by, 132
Herrings, migration of, 8
Hill, lines by, 119
Hogg, selection from, 203
Holland, Rev. T. A., poem by, 78
Holland, history of, 182
Home, Lines on, 45
Hopes of Youth, 103
Hour-glass, inscription under an, 43
House of Lords, Cossack, 148
Human curiosity, illimitableness of, 63
Hurd, Bishop, lines by 45, 192
Hydrostatic press, description of, 68

Impressions, early, on, 46
Improvement, progress of, 16
Indignation and Pity, 111
Infancy, lines on, 181
Inquisition, anecdote of the, 219
Inscription under an hour-glass, 43
——— on a tombstone, 80
Interrupted meditation, 228
Italy, timber-floats of, 9
Ivory statues of the ancients, 51

Jackall and his friends, a fable, 55
James, selection from, 143
Jameson, selection from, 135
January, month of, 7
Japanese, religious opinions of, 54
Java, conquest of, by the Chinese, 143
Jeffrey, selection from, 103
Jersey, town of St. Aubin, in, 137
Jews of Algiers, legend of, 86
Jones, Sir W., selection from, 227
——— of Nayland, selection from, 117
Jortin, Archdeacon, selection from, 192
June, month of, 223

Kaimes, Lord, extracts from, 14, 111 232
Kew, botanical garden at, 240
Kirke White, poem by, 103
Kirkstall Abbey, Yorkshire, 47
Knowledge, principal end of acquiring, 6
——— and pretension, 119
Knowles, lines by, 206
Knox, lines by, 136
Kreasote, properties of, 190
Krummacher, Winter Lay by, 8

Labour, importance of skilled, 112, 119, 191, 235
Laburnum, the, 232
Land-slip near Axmouth, Devon, 50
Lavoisier, anecdote of, 228
Lazarettos, account of, 179
Leipsic, town of, 97
Life compared to a voyage, 31
Lindley, Dr., extract from a report by, 239
Literature a step to knowledge, 183
——— effects of, on the moral character, 207
——— advance of, 223
Locke, selection from, 6
Locomotive engines, railroad, 161
London and Birmingham Railway, 162
——— Greenwich Railway, 168
Love at first sight, 117
Love to enemies, lines on, 240
Lunatics, emancipation of, 60
Luxury, effects of, 14
——— lines on, 104

Macculloch, extracts from, 78, 104, 192, 208
Mace and nutmegs, on, 147
Mackenzie, selections from, 62, 120, 135
Man, presumption of, 227
—— accountability of, 219
—— varied powers of, 14
—— effect of external objects on, 21
Mansions, old English, 89
Mant, Bishop, selection from, 223
Manufacture of shot, 199
Marbles, Elgin, description of, 217, 233
March, month of, 93
March of time, 135
Marseilles, lazaretto at, 179
Martial, epigram from, 146
Mary de Medicis, her visit to Charles I., 76
Mason, selections from, 45, 111, 119, 206
Materials for the toilette, VIII., 27—IX., 61
May, month of, 171
Medals copied by means of Galvanism I., 219—II., 227
Medeya, Algiers, town of, 81
Meditation, interrupted, 228
Migration, remarks on, 205, 230
——— of herrings, 8
——— of birds, 230
Military drilling, I., 18—II., 55
Mills, selection from, 135
Milton, selection from, 119
——— vindication of, 148
——— anecdote of, 159
Mind, a devout and undevout, 117
Mines of Chili, South America, 133
Mint, culture of, 243
Modern Rome, 156
Monitors, natural, 175
Monks, Carthusian, account of, 201
Montesquieu, selections from, 139, 150
Months, natural history of the, I., January, 7—II., February, 45—III., March, 93—IV., April, 132—V., May, 171—VI., June, 223
Moral improvement, value of, 131
Moor, anecdote of a, 84
More, selection from, 75
Mothers, duty of, 53
——— sympathies of, 206
Murray, extract from, 230

National history, sketches of, 182
Natural history of the months, I., 7—II., 45—III., 93—IV., 132—V., 171
Nature of Geology, 11
——— beauties of, 143
——— no magic in the works of, 208
Negroes in Algiers, state of, 84
New year's gifts, 15
New York and Philadelphia, account of, 57
Newton, Bishop, selection from, 120
Night on the Great Pyramid, 130
Nineveh, city of, 13
Nutmegs and mace, on, 147

Oakhampton, Devonshire, town of, 241
Ockwells, in Berkshire, 90
Omens, on, 95, 107
Omers, St., in France, 17, 31
Opie, Mrs., selection from, 222
Opium trade with China, 142
Oran, town of, 82

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Ordeal, trial by, 179
Oriental bazaars, 145
Osborn, lines by, 203

Panther, tamed, anecdotes of a, 198
Paris, Dr., selection from, 181
Parnell, Thomas, account of, 29
Passions, rage of the, 93
Patrick, Bp., selections from, 227, 238
Peace, lines on, 157
——— the proper result of Christian temper, 227
Pedantry, meaning of the word, 120
Penrose, lines by, 63
Perfumes, on, 61
Persia, recollections of, 99
Persian wheel, 141
Philadelphia, account o. the city of, 58
Photogenic drawing, II., the Daguerreotype, 71—III., 79
Piety, remarks on, 72
Pimpernel flower, country maid and the, 203
Pollok, lines by, 3, 131
Prayer, lines on, 69
Preponderance of good over evil, 228
President of the United States, visit to, 158
Prior, lines by, 110
——— anecdote of, 155
Progress of improvement, 16
Proportional compasses, on, 196
Psalms, beauty and variety of the, 176
Pyramid, great, night on the, 130

Quarantine and lazarettos, I., 173—II., 179
Questions, botanical, answers to, 120

Railroad locomotive engines, 161
Rainbow, the, 78
Raleigh, Sir Walter, selection from, 53
Rapids of Niagara, vessel sent over, 118
Regal state, 53
Relaxation, pleasures of, 91
Religion, influence of, 77
Remorse, lines on, 77
Responsibility of an agent, 227
Resurrection, lines on the, 248
Retirement, advantages of, 192
Reynolds, Sir Joshua, and his works, I., 2—II., 25
Richardson, selection from, 139
Richmond Castle, Yorkshire, 20
Robertson, selection from, 120
Roman architecture, 211
Rome, modern, remarks on, 156
Rook, the, 150
Rosemary, lines on the, 103
Royal Visits, 76

Sage, garden, culture of, 195
St. Aubin, Jersey, account of, 137
St. Omers, France, account of, 17, 31
Sandford, Mrs., selection from, 183
Saracenic Architecture, 249
Saxe-Coburg-Gotha, Duchy of, 4
Science, advantages in, 181
——— strength of, 183
Scott, Sir W., lines by, 77
——— selection from, 222
Second Christian era, architecture of the, 250
Sedgwick, selection from, 176
Self-knowledge, 45
Serk, island of, 106
Sharpe, selection from, 248
Shot, on the manufacture of, 199
Shuttleworth, selection from, 67
Sickness, thoughts on, 143
Sidney, Sir Philip, character of, 176
Sight and hearing, channels through which truth is arrived at, 206
Simpson, the mathematician, 160
Skating, on, 70
Sketch of the history of Algiers, 33
Sketches in America, 117, 158
——— in Egypt, 130
——— of national history—Holland, 182
Skilled labour, importance of, 112, 119, 191, 235
Smith, Sir T., counsels of, 175
Smoke-jack, the, 247
Smollett, lines by, 143
Smyth's lectures, extract from, 223
Soame Jenyns, selection from, 43
Socialism, remarks on, 77
Socrates, last hours of, 131
Solitude, lines on, 4
Sorrow the guide of man, 100
——— effects of, on the mind, 236
Soul, lines on the, 75, 203
South of France, gipsies of the, 244
——— America, mines of Chili in, 133
——— Western Railway, 165
Spitalfields in 1780 and 1840, 160
Stag-beetle, the, 144
Stanhope, selection from, 31
Statues, ivory, of the ancients, 51
Sterne, selection from, 6
Strata, general arrangement of, 44
Study of the creation, on the, 28
Sunday thought, 222
Supreme Being, proofs of a, 103
Switzerland, town of Zurich in, 65

Tamar, banks of the, 153, 177
Tamed panther, anecdotes of a, 198
Tamers of wild beasts, 63
Taylor, Jeremy, selection from, 75
Tear, lines on a, 21
Teheran, Persia, town of, 99
Tewkesbury, abbey church at, 73
Thomson, the poet, epitaph on, 43
——— lines by, 121
Thought, a churchyard, 171
——— a Sunday, 222
Thyme, qualities and culture of, 187
Tillotson, selection from, 6
Timber floats of Germany and Italy, 9
Time past, present, and future, 131
Toilette, materials for the, VIII., 27—IX., 61
Tombstone, inscription on a, 80
Torquay, Devonshire, town of, 193
Townson, selection from, 31
True peace, 157
Truth, power of, 80
Turks in Algiers, 86
Turnspits, boys employed as, 247
Twamley, L. A., poem by, 203

Vanity, effects of, 111
Vendome, France, account of, 109
Venice, lazaretto at, 180
Visit of Mary de Medicis to Charles I., 76
Voyage, comparison of life to a, 81

Waller, lines by, 76
Ward, selection from, 228
Washington, visit to the city of, 158
Water, remarks on, 78
Wax figures, on, 23
——— artificial flowers in, 204
West, Sir B. and his works, 170, 186
Wheel, the Persian, 141
Whitehall palace, notice of, 101
Wiclif, account of, 42
Wild beast tamers, 63
Will o'the Wisp, 67
Wise man, the, 3
Wither, lines by, 248
Wolsey, cardinal, establishment of, 101
Woman's love, faithfulness of, 159
"Woman's Mission," lines on, 117
Works of Sir J. Reynolds, I., 2—II., 25
——— Sir Benjamin West, I., 170—II., 186

Yew, the common, 239
Young, selections from, 63
Youth, illusions in, 43
——— hopes of, 103

Zeal, misapplication of, 119
Zornlin, extracts from, 11, 43, 53
Zurich, Switzerland, account of, 65

INDEX TO THE ENGRAVINGS.

Abbey of St. Bertin, ruins of, 17
——— Kirkstall, ruins of, 48
——— Black, ruins of, 225
——— church, Tewkesbury, 73
Abdekadet, Marabout house of, 88
Academy, the infant, after Sir J. Reynolds, 1
Algerine vessels of pottery, 88
Algiers, general view of, 33
——— street in, 37
——— gate and fountain of Bab-el-Ouad, 40
——— coffee-house and school of Byrmadrais, near, 81
——— road-side well, 82
Arabs and a koulougli, 86
Arum, common, or cuckoo-pint, 176
Athens, remains of the temple of Pandrosus at, 209
Aubin, St., Jersey, town of, 137
Axmouth, Devon, land-slip near, 49
Bab-el-Ouad, gate and fountain of, 40
Bandana handkerchief press, 92
Bank of the United States, Philadelphia, 64
Banks of the Tamar, 153
Bazaar, an Oriental, 145
Black Abbey, ruins of the, 225
Buffon's burning mirrors, 236
Bycknacre Priory, ruins of, 116

Caraccas, cow-tree of the, 228
Caryatides, portico of, 216
Caterpillar, the goat-moth, 184
Chartreuse, Grand, monastery of, 201
——— entrance to, 208
Chelmsford, Essex, town of, 149
Cheops, top of the pyramid of, 129
Chili, miner's hut at San Pedro Nolasco, 133
City hall, New York, 57
Coffee-house and school of Byrmadrais, near Algiers, 81
Common arum, or cuckoo-pint, 176
Compasses, proportional, 196
Corinth, remains of the temple of Neptune at, 121
Cow-tree of the Caraccas, 229

Dartmouth, view of, 189
Devonshire, town of Torquay in, 193

Elgin marbles, blocks from, 217, 219, 233
Exterior of the palace at Medeya, 81

Fable, illustration of a, 243
Fig-tree, fruit of the, 136
Figures from the Panathenaic frieze, 217, 233
Floating timber in Lombardy, 9

Gad-fly, 221
Galvanic battery, section of a, 220
——— illustration of, 228
Gate and fountain of Bab-el-Ouad, 40
Genoa, from the ramparts, 113
Geological strata, diagram illustrative of, 55
Goat-moth caterpillar, 184
Golden age, by West, 185
Gotha, town of, 5
Grand Chartreuse, monastery of, 201
——— entrance to the, 208
Grecian huts, 125
Greenwich railway, view of, 168
Guernsey, St. Peter's port at, 105

Hall at Ockwells, Berkshire, 89
Hotel de Ville, St. Omer, 32
Huts, Grecian, 125
Hydrostatic press, 69

Infant academy, after Sir J. Reynolds, 1
Interior grand court of the palace at Medeya, 85

Jersey, town of St. Aubin, 137
Jupiter, statue of, by Phidias, 52

Kirkstall abbey, ruins of, 48

Laburnum, the, 232
Land-slip near Axmouth, Devon, 49
Lazaretto at Marseilles, 180
Leipsic, town of, 97
Locomotive engine, railroad, 164
Lombardy, floating timber in, 9
London and Birmingham railway, entrance to, Euston-square, 161
Lutterworth church, monument to Wiclif in, 41

Marabout house of Abdekadet, 88
Marseilles, lazaretto at, 180
Medeya, mosque at, 81
——— exterior of the palace at, 81
——— town of, 84
——— interior grand court of the palace at, 85
Military drilling, positions of the feet in, 56
Miner's hut at San Pedro Nolasco, Chili, 133
Monastery of Grand Chartreuse, 201
——— entrance to, 208
Monk walking the streets of Rome, 157
Monument to Wiclif, Lutterworth church, 41
Moors, costume of the, 84
Mosque at Medeya, 81
Muscipula, after Sir J. Reynolds, 25

Neptune, temple of, Corinth, remains of, 121
New York, city hall at, 57
Nineveh, supposed site of, 13

Oakhampton castle, 241
Ockwells, Berkshire, hall at, 89
Omer, St., ruins of the abbey of St. Bertin at, 17
——— Hotel de Ville, at, 32
Oriental bazaar, 145

Palace at Medeya, exterior of, 81
——— interior grand court of, 85
——— at Whitehall, in the time of Charles I., 101
Panathenaic frieze, Elgin marbles, 217, 233
Pandrosus, temple of, Athens, remains of, 209
Parker's burning-glass, 245
Patent shot-tower, section of, 200
Peasant, Roman, and family, 156
Persian wheel, 141
Peter's, St., port, Guernsey, 105
Phidias, statue of Jupiter by, 52
Philadelphia, United States, bank at, 64
Portico of Caryatides, 216
Pottery, Algerine, 88
Press, the hydrostatic, 69
——— Bandana handkerchief, 92
Proportional compasses, 169
Pyramid of Cheops, top of, 129

Railroad locomotive engine, 164
Railway, London and Birmingham, entrance to, 161
——— Greenwich, view of the, 168
Ramparts of Genoa, 113
Remains of the temple of Neptune at Corinth, 121
——— ——— Pandrosus at Athens, 209
Richmond castle, Yorkshire, 21
Road-side well, Algiers, 82
Rome, monk walking the streets of, 157
Roman peasant and family, 156
Ruins of the Abbey of St. Bertin, at St. Omer, 17
——— Kirkstall Abbey, 48
——— Bycknacre Priory, 116
——— the Black Abbey, 225

St. Aubin, Jersey, 137
St. Bertin, ruins of the abbey of, 17
St. Peter's port, Guernsey, 105
San Pedro Nolasco, Chili, miner's hut at, 133
Smoke-jacks, illustrations of, 248
Stag-beetle, 144
Statue of Jupiter, by the great sculptor Phidias, 52
Strata, diagram illustrative of, 55
Street in Algiers, 37

Tamar, banks of the, 153
——— Weir-head, 177
Temple of Neptune at Corinth, remains of, 121
——— Theseus, 128
——— Pandrosus, at Athens, remains of, 209
Tewkesbury, abbey church at, 73
Theseus, temple of, 128
Timber, floating, in Lombardy, 9
Top of the pyramid of Cheops, 129
Torquay, town of, 193
Tree, the cow, of the Caraccas, 229

United States bank, Philadelphia, 64

Vendome, entrance into, 109
Voltaic battery, section of a, 220
——— illustration of, 228

Weir-head, river Tamar, 177
Well, road-side, Algiers, 81
West's picture, "Suffer little Children to come unto me, and forbid them not," 169
——— Golden age, 185
Whitehall palace in the time of Charles I., 101
Wiclif, monument to, in Lutterworth church 41

Yew, the common, 240

Zurich, Switzerland, 65

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THE

Saturday Magazine.

Nº 482. JANUARY 4TH, 1840. Price One Penny.

THE INFANT ACADEMY; AFTER SIR JOSHUA REYNOLDS.

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SIR JOSHUA REYNOLDS
AND HIS WORKS.
I.

AMONG the distinguished characters of the last century, who exercised great influence upon the profession or vocation to which their abilities led them, we may class SIR JOSHUA REYNOLDS. It is sufficient for the term of a man's life and the natural powers of his mind, that, in whatever direction his capacity may develope itself, he should continue, in order to excel, to cultivate the object to which his capacity tends, so as to make such object individual, and his own. Painting is, and has been, from the early days of the world, one of the great arts of life; and to that department of it, which is occupied in the delineation of portraits, Reynolds was throughout his life most chiefly and successfully devoted.

The legends of antiquity tell us that portrait-painting took its rise in very old times in the city of Corinth, in Greece, from the circumstance of a young woman tracing the profile of her lover by his shadow cast upon the wall by a lamp. This was to serve as a memento during a separation, which the dread concerns of war were about to inflict upon them:—and in this dwells one of the great charms and incentives to this species of painting,—a charm which incites and enchains the mind with the desire to possess, in spite of time, of absence, space, and death, such a means of calling up the features, looks, and expression of those whom we have loved and lost on earth, that they may seem to be constantly with us in this world, as we trust they will be eternally in the next. Whatever may be the merits and excellencies of all other species of painting, whether they be of a mental or mechanical kind, they cannot in this one quality compete with the tracing of portraits; for the latter ministers to the best and holiest of human propensities, and excellence in this ministration is naturally and deservedly rewarded. That the painting of portraits is, and has been, liberally rewarded, as conducing to gratify pride and vanity, cannot be denied: but we do not refuse the good because sullied with evil; and we do not refuse due honour to Sir Joshua, though, as Northcote remarks, he thought it his duty "to discover only the perfections of those whom he represented."

The general tenor of the foregoing sentiments has been long ago confirmed by the pen of Johnson, who speaks of this department of the art as being "employed in diffusing friendship, in renewing tenderness, in quickening the affections of the absent, and continuing the presence of the dead." The exercise of of this art, he goes on to observe, every man desires "for the sake of those whom he loves, and by whom he hopes to be remembered. This use of the art is a natural and reasonable consequence of affection: and though, like all other human actions, it is often complicated with pride, yet even such pride is more laudable than that by which palaces are covered with pictures, that, however excellent, neither imply the owner's virtue, nor excite it."

The subject of this paper was born at Plympton, in Devonshire, in 1723, and was one of a large family. His father was a clergyman and master of the grammar school of the place. He has been accused of neglecting the education of his son; but if young Reynolds' attention was not driven to the acquirement of literature in the ordinary course, it was owing to his strong natural predilection for sketching, principally, the human features. His consequent neglect of the pursuits, which education imposes on the young, was a source of much rebuke from his sire:—poetry, painting, and the fine arts, generally having been found to bring their incipient professors into much trouble, for neglecting, in the judgment of their older and wiser friends, better and more substantial interests. Some of the most distinguished poets have been in early life educated with a view to the law: Reynolds was destined to the practice of physic. But having a natural tendency to limning, he could not nor did he attempt to restrain the impulses of nature. Hence he was deficient in the routine of scholastic learning; but, though he believed that genius and capacity were identical, and that he possessed these in reference to the arts, he did not fall into the seductive fallacy, which sometimes leads genius astray, namely, that fits of inspiration beget skill, and thereby relieve the possessor from earnest and assiduous toil.

From his earliest years, therefore, till he was about nineteen years of age, his time was chiefly taken up in copying such pictures and prints as came within his reach; in taking likenesses of his friends and relations; and in perusing all such books as fell in his way, which treated of painting and perspective. Some of his performances at length struck the attention of his father, who, thereupon, by the advice of his friends, sent Joshua to London, where he began his professional studies under Hudson, the most celebrated portrait-painter of the day, on the 18th of October, 1741, which day is the festival of St. Luke, the reputed patron of painters.

In the practice of portrait-painting, it has been wisely and acutely observed by those who are competent judges of the merit of it, that it is not sufficient to satisfy the judgment, to give merely an exact and mathematical likeness of an individual, if there be not imparted to the picture an expression which shall arouse in the beholder's mind such an idea of vital warmth, as we should entertain if we actually beheld the living prototype of the portrait. In this, we are told Hudson, the preceptor of Reynolds, was essentially deficient; though otherwise a distinguished and accurate maker of portraits: whereas, Reynolds, by connecting the latter excellence with the former, rose, on this ground, to the very top of his profession. He remained with Hudson about three years, and then returned into Devonshire; the separation having probably taken place, in consequence of Reynolds pursuing a style of painting very much out of the ordinary beat. The event, which led to their parting was Reynolds's painting the portrait of an old servant-woman of Hudson's. This picture astonished his master, and obtained unbounded applause in the Gallery.

Having acquired the friendship and patronage of several distinguished persons, Reynolds soon after returned to London, and lived for a while in St. Martin's Lane, which was then the favourite residence of artists, and where something like an Academy was established.

As most of those, which are esteemed to be the best productions of the best painters of the middle ages, are congregated at Rome; and as Rome has, in consequence, been held to be the finishing academy of artists; it was only a natural desire in Reynolds about this time to visit the city of the Seven Hills. In the year 1749, after voyaging about with Commodore Keppel up the Mediterranean, he landed at Leghorn, and proceeded direct to Rome.

It is a most interesting and astonishing circumstance in the history and profession of painting, that Reynolds, and many other distinguished painters, when at Rome for the purpose of viewing, studying, and imbibing the principles of the great masters, should have felt but little impression from them at the early contemplation of their performances. To

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describe the feelings of Sir Joshua, as he has ingenuously developed them, would be to pourtray the feelings of many other professed admirers of the fine arts, leaving their ingenuousness out of the question. The keeper of the Vatican told Reynolds that many visitors at Rome, who went to see the paintings, and Raphael's in particular, would ask, when they had seen the whole collection, where the performances of Raphael were to be found?—and would not believe, that they had already passed through the rooms where they were kept. When Reynolds found that others, even the greatest of painters, had stood in the like case with himself, in not all at once admiring and appreciating the merits of Raphael, he felt comforted; and solaced himself with the just and wise reflection, that he himself was then in the midst of works executed upon principles, with which he was at first totally unacquainted; that he had come from a country where the arts were then in a low state; that the name of Raphael, and his admirable paintings, did not owe their reputation to the ignorance and prejudice of mankind: consequently that he himself had come to the Roman School, not to congratulate himself on his own acquirements, but to relearn the principles of his art. In a short time, he tells us, a new taste and perception dawned upon him; that, instead of admiring stiff and extravagant attitudes, he began to feel the sober dignity and majestic simplicity of the illustrious Italian to be more congenial with the feelings of his own soul. Before he left Rome, therefore, he became one of the daily worshippers of these models of excellence in the art. On the other hand, he remarks, that many visitors at Rome, who had no taste or feeling for the art, made pretensions to instantaneous raptures at the sight of Raphael's works.

The whole character and conduct of Reynolds in life was marked by urbanity and courtliness. His behaviour, when thrown into the way of pretenders to the art of painting, is happily sketched by Goldsmith at the conclusion of his "Retaliation." The deafness of Sir Joshua, there alluded to, was brought on by a dangerous illness, which he suffered at Rome.

> To coxcombs averse, yet most civilly steering;
> When they judged without skill, he was still hard of hearing:
> When they talked of their Raphaels, Corregios, and stuff,
> He shifted his trumpet, and only took snuff.

The reader will gain some idea of the taste and genius of Sir Joshua Reynolds, from the frontispiece to the present number. "The Infant Academy" is a happy example of our artist's power in grouping and designing children, and in pourtraying the innocence of youth and childhood. By the will of Sir Joshua, the second choice was given to Lord Palmerston, of any picture of his (Sir Joshua's) own painting; and his lordship chose "The Infant Academy," which has been made known to the world through the engraving by Hayward.

> The wise man, says the Bible, walks with God;
> Surveys, far on, the endless line of life;
> Values his soul, thinks of eternity,
> Both worlds considers, and provides for both:
> With reason's eye his passions guards; abstains
> From evil; lives on hope, on hope, the fruit
> Of faith; looks upward, purifies his soul,
> Expands his wings, and mounts into the sky;
> Passes the Sun, and gains his Father's house,
> And drinks with angels from the fount of bliss.
>
> POLLOK's *Course of Time.*

THE CALENDAR.

1840.	1. Golden Number	17
	2. Epact	26
	3. Solar Cycle	1
	4. Sunday Letters	E & D
	5. Roman Indiction	13
	6. Number of Direction	29
	7. Julian Period	6553

THE following article is supplementary to an article entitled, "WHAT IS AN ALMANAC?" p. 150, Vol. XV., of this work. The terms used at the head of this paper, are usually denominated the CHRONOLOGICAL AND COMMON NOTES of the Almanac or Calendar.

THE CALENDAR is an adjustment of time, according to rule, for the use of society. The term "Calendar" is derived from an old classic word implying *to call*, from the circumstance of the Pontifex Maximus, the head of the ancient Roman priests, *proclaiming*, on the first day of the month, the date of the appearance of the new moon, and the festivals to be observed throughout the month.

In the early stages of society, the progress of time was estimated by the courses of the sun and moon; the former marking out years, seasons, and days; and the latter, months and weeks.

But, as we observed in the former paper, of the several divisions of time, it has been most difficult to determine with accuracy, the *month* and the *year*; since the revolution of neither the sun nor the moon is completed in an exact number of days. To reconcile the revolutions of the sun and moon, with the common account of time, and to make them agree with each other, was the object held in view upon reforming the Calendar on the following remarkable occasions:—

i. Julius Cæsar, being convinced by the Greek astronomer, Sosigenes, that the year then employed was too short, and that it could never be properly settled but by referring it to the (apparent) annual revolution of the sun, and finding that about ninety days had been lost by the old reckoning, made the first Julian year to consist of 444 days, which was in consequence called the "year of confusion." This year was thus made to terminate at the proper season. The following years, with the months, were then adjusted nearly as they are at present; and, as the year was from that time made to consist of 365¼ days, a day was inserted every fourth year, between the 6th and 5th of the Calends of March, (which days answer to the 24th and 25th of February); so that, the 6th day of the Calends of March being repeated, there were accounted to be *two sixth-days* of the Calends of March, and the day thus inserted was named *bissextus dies*, or the double-sixth day; whence we call Leap-year, in which this addition is made, *Bissextile.*

ii. But, as the year does not consist of *quite* 365¼ days, it was found, in the sixteenth century after the birth of Christ, that the course of the civil year was ten days in advance of the course of the sun. The calendar was, therefore, again corrected by Pope Gregory the Thirteenth, A. D. 1582. This, which is called the new style, was adopted in England, A. D. 1752, as noticed in our former paper. The regulations assumed in this second reformation of the Calendar, are such as, reckoning from the sixteenth century, will make the civil year and the course of the sun to differ after the lapse of 4000 years, only to the amount of *one day!*

THE NOTES given at the head of this article, were the elements employed in the correction of the Calendar; and these we proceed briefly to explain.

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1. The GOLDEN NUMBER is the number which any given year holds in the Lunar Cycle, which is a period of nineteen years, at the lapse of which the new moons take place on the same days of the same months respectively as at the commencement of the cycle. Therefore, while the sun performs its annual course nineteen times, those of the moon amount to 235. The importance of this discovery in the regulation of time was held to be so great, that the rule for ascertaining the number of the year in the Lunar Cycle was inscribed in letters of gold on a tablet, set up in the market-place of Athens, in Greece. Hence, the term GOLDEN number. The rule is given in the Calendar which prefaces the Church service.

2. The EPACT is the number of days over and above all the complete courses of the moon, for any number of years, in any part of the Lunar Cycle. Hence, it is the moon's age at the beginning of any year; that is, the number of days which have elapsed since the last new moon in the preceding year.

3. The SOLAR CYCLE is a period of twenty-eight years, which, owing to leap-year, must necessarily pass round before the days of the month can return respectively to the same days of the week as at the commencement of the cycle.

4. The Dominical or SUNDAY LETTER is one of the first seven letters of the alphabet; which letters are used to denote respectively the days of the week, and one of which letters must of course fall to the Sunday throughout the year. But, owing to leap-year, their order is every fourth year disturbed; so that the Solar Cycle must pass round before the letters can fall respectively to the same days of the week. The present being leap-year, there are *two* Sunday letters; the left-hand letter is used till the end of February, and the other till the end of the year.

5. ROMAN INDICTION was a period of fifteen years appointed by the Emperor Constantine, A.D. 312, for the payment of certain taxes from the subjects of the empire.

6. The NUMBER OF DIRECTION. It having been decided by an assembly of Christian bishops at the Council of Nice, in Asia, A. D. 325, that EASTER DAY is always "the first Sunday *after* the Full Moon which happens upon, or next after, the 21st of March," it follows that Easter Day cannot take place earlier than the 22nd of March, or later than the 25th of April; so that from one date to the other (both inclusive) are thirty-five days. The number of direction is that day of the thirty-five, on which Easter-Sunday falls.

7. The JULIAN PERIOD consists of 7980 years; which is produced by the multiplication into each other of the Solar Cycle, the Lunar Cycle, and the Roman Indiction ($28 \times 19 \times 15 = 7680$). This period is reckoned from 709 years before the creation of the world, when the three cycles are supposed to commence together; which circumstance cannot take place again until the lapse of the entire period, A. D. 3267.

The Roman Indiction and the Julian Period are not now of practical use in the Calendar; but the other observations will serve to assist those who wish to understand the Calendar, which is prefixed to the Church service, in the Prayer-book.

BLEST Solitude! when life's gay hours are past,
Howe'er we range, in thee we fix at last.
Tossed through tempestuous seas, the voyage over,
Pale, we look back, and bless thy friendly shore;
Our own strict judges, our past lives we scan,
And ask if virtue has enlarged the span:
If bright the prospect, we the grave defy,
Trust future ages, and contented die.

THE DUCHY OF SAXE-COBURG-GOTHA.

COBURG is a country which has been as yet little visited by travellers, because it does not lie in the course of the great roads; but the fine scenery, the unsophisticated and original old German tone of manners, the economical mode of living, and the celebrity of its reigning family, will probably gradually attract many strangers.

The ducal house of Saxe-Coburg-Gotha is of the Lutheran religion. The reigning duke is Ernest, born January 2, 1784, who succeeded to the throne, December 9, 1806. He was married, first to Louisa, princess of Saxe-Gotha, from whom he was separated in 1826, and who died in 1832, and secondly, in 1832, to Maria, daughter of the late Duke Alexander of Würtemberg. He has two sons, Ernest, the heir apparent, born June 21, 1818, and Albert *, born the succeeding year. Of his two sisters, Julia, married to Prince Constantine of Russia, from whom she was divorced in 1820, is dead; the other is Victoria, duchess of Kent, born August 17, 1786: he has also two brothers, Ferdinand, born 1785, and Leopold, king of the Belgians, born 1790. The former has three sons and one daughter; the eldest son, Ferdinand, is married to Donna Maria, queen of Portugal.

The following is a view of the provinces of the duchy and of their population:—

	Area in Geo. Sq. Miles.	Population, 1832.	Towns.	Market Towns.	Villages.	Houses.
Principality of Coburg	9·50	38,000	4	4	271	5,700
Principality of Gotha	28·10	92,231	5	6½	158	18,250
	37·60	130,231	9	10½	429	23,950

According to the latest census, the entire population amounts to 131,861.

The principal towns are, Gotha (13,006 inhabitants), and Coburg (9067). With the exception of the Jews, all the inhabitants are Germans, and all are Lutherans, except 2000 Catholics and 1000 Jews.

In this duchy, there are three gymnasiums and classical schools, one academical gymnasium, two seminaries for schoolmasters, one ladies' school (at Coburg), thirty-five town schools, and 300 village schools. The revenue is 1,100,000 florins. The public debt amounts to 3,000,000 florins. The contingent to the army of the confederacy is 1366 men.

The government is a constitutional monarchy: the representatives form one chamber only. Gotha, however, has still its old diet (three classes in one chamber). The qualification to vote for a deputy of the nobles is constituted by the possession of a seignorial estate (*Rittergut*). For the deputies of towns, every citizen is entitled to vote who has never been a bankrupt, and who has not been punished for transgression of the laws.

In the villages, the householders form the constituency. The deputies must be of the Christian religion, citizens of the state, thirty years of age, and men of unblemished reputation. Those of the towns and villages must have either an estate free from incumbrances, worth 5000 florins, or an annual income of 400 florins. Officers of the government appointed for the purpose, superintend the election of the knights and of the citizens: in the villages, the elections are superintended by the ordinary officials.

The ministry is composed of one minister of state, and of three privy-councillors.

The highest court of justice is the supreme court of appeal; the lower courts are the colleges of justice at Coburg and Gotha; and finally, throughout the

* The husband-elect of our gracious sovereign Queen Victoria. ED. *Sat. Mag.*

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GOTHA.

country, justice is administered by bailiffs, magistrates, and patrimonial judges.

The chief officers of the court are, a first marshal of the court, and a grand equerry.

The present Duke of Saxe-Coburg-Gotha was formerly Duke of Saxe-Coburg and Saalfeld, but, in 1826, he ceded the latter, and obtained the duchy of Gotha, with exception of the lordship of Kranichfeld. After this change of territory, one of the first acts of his government was the creation of a privy-council, consisting of the officers of government both in Coburg and Gotha. A decree of October 30, 1828, established in each duchy a separate college of justice, which takes cognizance of matrimonial matters, formerly falling under the jurisdiction of the consistorial court. Each duchy has its own system of internal administration, taxation, and excise. On the other hand, for both Coburg and Gotha, there is only one high consistorial court for ecclesiastical affairs and for public instruction, and only one war-office. According to the new regulations, the fees which were formerly claimed by the officials, are now the property of the state. In 1830, a journal was established for the more prompt promulgation of laws and edicts. On the 1st of July, 1829, the army was reorganized, so that the soldiers of both duchies (1366 in number) were made to form one infantry regiment of the line, divided into two battalions.

The funds for the preservation and increase of the books, pictures, and coins, at Gotha, have been lately enlarged. The government has particularly distinguished itself in encouraging trade and commerce. Monopolies were abolished in Coburg, so early as 1812; in Gotha, in 1829. Exhibitions of home products and trade schools have been established; and all impediments to commerce have been removed.

The French revolution of 1830, produced a temporary sensation in Coburg and Gotha, which led to no important results. But in the distant principality of Lichtenberg, which had been ceded to the duke by the Congress of Vienna, in 1816, its effects were such as not only to disquiet the inhabitants, but also to weaken the moral force of the government. Awakened by these circumstances to a sense of the difficulty of governing a separate territory, inhabited by a restless population, the Duke of Saxe-Coburg-Gotha has since sold the principality of Lichtenberg to the King of Prussia.

In this duchy no preference is given to birth in electing officers of state. Difference of religion does not affect the equal enjoyment of political rights. Every citizen is bound to serve for a certain period in the army, should he be chosen by lot, or to find a substitute. No citizen can remain in arrest for the space of twenty-four hours without being informed of the cause of his apprehension.

The territories of the Duke of Gotha lie in Thuringia; they are extremely fertile, well cultivated, and thickly populated. Agriculture is their principal source of prosperity. The northern districts are plains, intersected by chains of hills; the south is mountainous and woody.

The principal products are corn, potatoes, carrots, and other vegetables, flax, poppies, aniseed, woad, and an immense quantity of wood, which is the staple article. A few hops are grown; there is not much fruit, and the wine is only made for vinegar. There are plenty of pigs and poultry, but the horses are of an inferior breed. The country contains mines of iron, manganese, coal, and slate. There are numerous worsted-spinners and linen-weavers, particularly in the hilly districts. There are also woollen and cotton manufactories, but they are not very numerous. Other articles of manufacture are iron-ware, wire, copper goods, stockings, tobacco, glue, leather, and soap. There are five paper-mills, three porcelain, and three hardware manufactories.

The exports are corn, wood, wool, woad, manganese, pitch, potash, bilberries, coriander-seeds, aniseed, butter, linen, iron goods, sausages, and livers of geese.

Coburg, the capital of the principality of Coburg, and formerly the residence of the duke, is situated in a delightful country; it contains more than 800 houses, and about 9000 inhabitants. One of the most prominent public buildings is the palace of

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Ehrenburg, in which the present duke has made large improvements. It now contains a library, a cabinet of natural history, of medals and prints, and an armoury. In the neighbourhood of the town is the castle of Coburg, which contains a workhouse and a house of correction. In the town itself is a gymnasium, supplied with a library, with specimens of natural history, and medals. There are a senate house, an orphan asylum, a casino, an armoury, and a government house, built in an Italian style of architecture. Amongst the curiosities of the place are Luther's room, which contains some beautiful woodwork, and the alabaster monument of Duke John Frederic, in the church of St. Maurice. The principal places of amusement are the theatre, the casino, the redoute, and the musical club. In the neighbourhood are the beautiful old and new walks, the ruins of the castles of Callenberg and Lauterburg, and the lovely seat of the duke, the Rosenau.

Gotha, the capital of the duchy of Gotha, and also a residence of the present duke, contains about 1300 houses, and 13,000 inhabitants. The palace of Friedenstein contains a very good library, a collection of coins, a museum of natural history, a Chinese cabinet, a picture gallery, and remarkable collections made by the late duke,—the whole forming a treasure of literature and art, such as few moderate towns can boast of. In 1824, the museum, which was given to the country by the late duke, Frederic, was opened. The ducal libraries contain 150,000 volumes. The walls and fortifications of the town have been changed into ornamental walks. Near the town is the observatory on the Seeberg, 1189 feet above the level of the sea. In the neighbourhood, too, is the palace of Friedreichsthal, containing some valuable monuments of Italian art, and the orangery and park, where the Dukes Ernest and Augustus are buried.

The chief places of amusement and public resort here, are the theatre, ball-rooms, and public gardens. In the neighbourhood of Gotha are two ducal palaces, and the Moravian colony of Neudietendorf.

The house of Saxe-Coburg is indisputably the most fortunate of all the existing great families of Europe. No common lot has attended them in our time, and they appear destined to fill a remarkable place in modern history. The reigning duke has succeeded to the inheritance of the duchy of Saxe-Gotha, which he enjoys in addition to his original sovereignty of Coburg. His brother, Leopold, was born under an extraordinary star; he first married the heiress to the British throne, and subsequently a daughter of the King of the French; two ladies not less amiable than elevated; and, after declining the throne of Greece, he has been chosen King of Belgium. One sister espoused the Archduke Constantine of Russia, and thus in the ordinary course of events would have become Empress of all the Russias. The history of another sister, the Duchess of Kent, is too well known to require comment; she is the mother of the Queen of England. Another brother has married one of the greatest heiresses of the Austrian empire, the daughter of the Prince of Kohary, and occupies the high post of lieutenant field-marshal, in the service of the emperor. Finally, a nephew of the Duchess of Kent is the reigning King of Portugal. An impartial review of the progress of this distinguished race compels us to add that it does not owe its success to unworthy intrigue; its members bear their great estate with prudence, with good sense, and with moderation; and their domestic qualities form an antidote to the venom which generally pursues a career of success.

From *Germany; the Spirit of her History, Literature, Social Condition, and National Economy, &c.* By Dr. BISSET HAWKINS.

THE LAND OF CONTRADICTIONS.

THERE is a land in distant seas
Full of all contrarieties.
There beasts have mallard's bill and legs,
Have spurs like cocks, like hens lay eggs.
There parrots walk upon the ground,
And grass upon the trees is found;
On other trees—another wonder—
Leaves without upper side or under.
There pears you'll scarce with hatchet cut;
Stones are outside the cherries put;
Swans are not white, but black as soot.
There neither leaf, nor root, nor fruit,
Will any Christian palate suit;
Unless in desperate need you'll fill ye
With root of fern and stalk of lily.
There missiles to far distance sent
Come whizzing back from whence they went.
There a voracious ewe-sheep crams
Her paunch with flesh of tender lambs;
While, stead of bread, and beef, and broth,
Men feast on many a roasted moth.
There quadrupeds go on two feet,
And yet few quadrupeds so fleet.
There birds, although they cannot fly,
In swiftness with the greyhound vie.
With equal wonder you may see
The foxes fly from tree to tree;
And what they value most, so wary,
These foxes in their pockets carry.
There courting swains their passion prove
By knocking down the girls they love.
There every servant gets his place
By character of foul disgrace;
There vice is virtue, virtue vice,
And all that's vile is voted nice.
The sun, when you to face him turn ye,
From right to left performs his journey.
The north winds scorch, but when the breeze is
Full from the south, why then it freezes.
Now of what place can such strange tales
Be told with truth but New South Wales?

FOR men to judge of their condition by the decrees of God which are hid from us, and not by his word which is near us and in our hearts, is as if a man wandering in the wide sea, in a dark night when the heaven is all clouded about, should yet resolve to steer his course by the stars which he cannot see, but only guess at, and neglect the compass, which is at hand and would afford him a much better and more certain direction.—TILLOTSON.

THE brave only know how to forgive; it is the most refined and generous pitch of virtue human nature can arrive at. Cowards have done good and kind actions, cowards have even fought, nay, sometimes even conquered; but a coward never forgave: it is not in his nature; the power of doing it flows only from a strength and greatness of soul, conscious of its own force and security, and above the little temptations of resenting every fruitless attempt to interrupt its happiness.—STERNE.

THE knowledge we acquire in this world I am apt to think extends not beyond the limits of this life. The beatific vision of the other life needs not the help of this dim twilight; but be that as it will, I am sure the principal end why we are to get knowledge here, is to make use of it for the benefit of ourselves and others in this world; but if by gaining it we destroy our health, we labour for a thing that will be useless in our hands; and if by harrassing our bodies, (though with a design to render ourselves more useful,) we deprive ourselves of the abilities and opportunities of doing that good we might have done with a meaner talent, which God thought sufficient for us, by having denied us the strength to improve it to that pitch which men of stronger constitutions can attain to, we rob God of so much service, and our neighbour of all that help, which, in a state of health, with moderate knowledge, we might have been able to perform. He that sinks his vessel by overloading it, though it be with gold and silver, and precious stones, will give his owner but an ill account of his voyage.—LOCKE.

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THE NATURAL HISTORY OF THE MONTHS.

I. JANUARY.

Then came old January, wrapped well
In many weeds to keep the cold away;
Yet did he quake and quiver like to queil;
And blowe his nayles, to warm them if he may:
For they were numbed with holding all the day
An hatchet keene, with which he felled wood,
And from the trees did lop the needlesse spray.—SPENSER.

THIS month derives its name from JANUS, a deity represented by the Romans with two faces looking in opposite directions, and typical of the past and the future. JANUS was the god of gates and avenues, and held a key in one hand, and a rod in the other, symbolical of his opening and ruling the year. This month is chosen as the commencement of the year, in preference to March, when the ancient year began, probably because the lengthening of the days being the chief cause of the return of Spring, may therefore be considered in reality as its commencement. The time of the renewal of nature varies greatly in different countries, but in our own there is certainly less appearance of such a change in the month of January than at any other period; for "as the days begin to lengthen, the frost begins to strengthen."

The weather during this month is frequently clear, cold, and bright, and the beautiful effects of hoar-frost are often sufficient to give animation to a landscape, which would otherwise look blank and dreary. Every branch and spray is fringed with delicate crystals, sparkling in the sun's rays with the lustre of diamonds; and there is not a single blade of grass, or a plant, however insignificant, but may become, when adorned with these radiant gems, the object of our highest wonder and admiration. The very weeds which we are accustomed to pass unnoticed, or to tread beneath our feet,

Now shine
Conspicuous, and in bright apparel clad,
And fledged with icy feathers, nod superb.

All those effects which are produced by the transient morning dew of summer, are now exhibited, and still more strikingly, in the brilliant hoar-frost; and were it not that the constant recurrence of the wondrous scene has taught us to look on it with some degree of indifference, we could not fail to be struck with feelings of admiration and delight. In the remembrance that

Nature is but a name for an effect,
Whose cause is God,

such a scene is well calculated to inspire us with enlarged ideas of the power of that wonder-working Hand, which, whether in the vast or in the minute, is equally faultless in performance, inexhaustible in resource, infinite in variety, and unwearied in operation. The examination of a blade of grass, or even of a spider's web, laden with this frozen dew, will prove how inimitably beautiful, and passing human art to imitate, are the least of the works of God.

The beautiful hoar-frost is nevertheless only one of the effects of the absence of heat during this season of the year. As the cold increases, the surfaces of rivers and lakes become fixed, and converted apparently into floors of marble, and during this change the water expands, and in its solid state occupies more space, at the same time that it becomes lighter than before. This remarkable circumstance appears at first sight to contradict the general law of the expansion of bodies by heat, and their contraction by cold, that is, by the diminution of heat; but the difficulty is lessened by considering that water *does* contract by cold, according to this law, within a certain limit, and that having reached this limit, and become condensed in the greatest degree of which it is susceptible by cold alone, a re-arrangement of particles takes place, "by which the crystalline form of the solid which is about to be produced occupies more space than the particles in the liquid form." "Now supposing," says Mr. Tomlinson, "that water regularly contracted from its liquid to its solid state, it is quite clear that a certain bulk of ice would occupy less space than the bulk of water which formed it. Its weight would be, in short, bulk for bulk, greater than that of water, and it would consequently sink; and our streams in winter, instead of the superficial crust of ice which covers them, and which is easily thawed, would become one solid mass of ice, destroying all that life with which the waters teem, and would take a whole summer to become again liquid, since water is so imperfect a conductor of heat."

One effect of this property of water to expand during the process of congelation is to diminish the height of mountains; for the rain and melted snow remaining in their cavities and fissures during the summer season, become frozen, and seeking to occupy a greater space than before, force out masses of rock with irresistible power, and send them thundering down to the valley beneath. Another, and a generally useful effect, is the preparation of the earth to receive its destined seed, in consequence of the crumbling to pieces of the heavy clods of the field, by the expansion of the frozen moisture within them.

At the time when the frost is severe enough to produce these effects, how beautiful, how elegantly diversified, are the forms it assumes on the windows of our apartments, where we may sometimes fancy a resemblance to the fretted roof and clustered columns of some ancient building, or trace what may seem "the sparkling trees and shrubs of fairy-land," or seek in vain, among its thousand capricious shapes, "the likeness of some object seen before." These beautiful appearances are due to the condensation of moisture from the atmosphere of our dwellings, on the cold panes of glass, and its subsequent expansion into crystals. The same kind of starry crystals are found in the frozen water of the clouds, or snow, which forms a covering for the earth of unrivalled purity, and affords protection from the extreme severity of the frost to the plants which lie beneath it.

But while the plants are thus protected from the rigour of the season, how fares it with the minstrels of the grove? where do they find a substitute for the leafy shelter of the trees, and how are they able to supply their wants, when the rivers are frost-bound, and the land covered with a fleecy deluge? Doubtless when the frost is of long continuance, thousands of them die of cold and hunger, or become the prey of man, as they venture near to shelter themselves in the warm neighbourhood of his dwelling. Blackbirds, thrushes, and fieldfares, nestle together in banks, and under hedges, and frequent the vicinity of towns. Larks find shelter in the warm stubble, and tribes of small birds courageously surround our houses, and take possession of our farm-yards, in search of their precarious sustenance. The yellow-hammer, the chaffinch, but especially the audacious sparrow, beset our path, and seem to claim a share in the food with which we are so abundantly supplied; while the friendly redbreast seeks and finds a welcome everywhere. Redwings, fieldfares, skylarks, &c., find a partial supply in wet meadows, and along the water's edge, while these remain unfrozen. The ringdove subsists on ivy-berries; water-fowl quit the frozen marshes for the neighbourhood of rapid streams, where the swiftly-passing-current escapes its icy fetters, and leaves its richly embroidered banks to display the wonders of the mighty agent. Sea-birds

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also leave the shore, and frequent the larger rivers, while nearer home we observe the effect of the severe weather in the sad and half-petrified appearance of the cattle, which are seen creeping to the corner which seems best adapted to shelter them from the keen air, and waiting in mournful silence for their customary supply of fodder. Many animals remain in a death-like state of torpor, during the winter, and many others sleep away the greater part of the season, receiving nourishment from the fat which they had acquired in summer. Thus it happens that the bear, marmot, &c., come out in the spring greatly emaciated, but during summer they gain so much in bulk as to be able to undergo another season of torpor.

Intense cold and deficiency of food embolden the fox, the weasel, the polecat, and other predatory quadrupeds to attack the hen-roost and the farm yard. The fearful attacks of hungry wolves are happily known to us only by tradition in our own country, or by the reports of travellers in Alpine lands. Even the timid hare approaches the abodes of man to feed on the garden vegetables. Rabbits greatly injure the young trees by nibbling off the bark as high as they can reach. The tit-mouse seeks food in the thatched coverings of houses and walls, and the farmer keeps his early lambs and calves within doors, tending them as carefully and as gently as his own children.

The vegetable kingdom too has put on winter dress or retired to winter quarters. The roots of herbaceous plants are safe under ground, ready at the return of warmth to throw up their young shoots. The soft and tender parts of shrubs and trees, are wrapped up in hard buds; the larger kinds of which, such as those of the horse-chesnut, the sycamore, and the lime, are covered with a sort of resin which resists the most intense cold. Sometimes, however, a tree which is less securely guarded than its fellows by those kind provisions of nature, has its juices frozen, and it then spilts asunder by the formation of the ice, and perishes. By the end of the month the leaves of the woodbine appear ready to expand; the winter aconite and bear's foot are often in flower, and in sheltered situations the red dead-nettle and groundsel. The snow-drop is preparing its modest bell and the catkins of the hazel begin to open.

On mild days the slug or shell-less snail is moving about to the injury of the young wheat and garden plants. The bodies of these animals are covered with slime, as the whale is with blubber; this non-conducting substance enables them to withstand the cold.

The frost suspends most of the out-door work of the farmer. His team can now move over the frozen fields as easily as on the high-road; he, therefore, carries out manure to his fields; or he lops his timber, or repairs hedges. The labourer warms himself in the barn by the constant use of the flail; or when work is over, he retires to his snug chimney corner, and if honest and industrious, he need not fear the want to his family of "meat, clothes, and fire." But still there is no season of the year in which charity is more efficacious than in this. Those who from their warm and snug retreats hear the cold wind without, should think upon their poorer fellow-creatures and relieve their necessities.

Rivers and canals are no longer the high-roads for watermen and bargemen: these are out of employment, while troops of skaters and sliders usurp the domain of the boat and the barge.

It was at such a season as this that the pious Krummacher composed his WINTER LAY of which we offer the following translation.

Ah! why reposest thou, so pale,
So very still in thy white veil,
Thou cherish'd Father-land?
Where are the joyous lays of spring,
The varied hue of summer's wing,
Thy glowing vestment bland?

But half-attired, thou slumberest now,
No flocks to seek thy pastures go,
O'er vales or mountains steep:
Silent is every warbler's lay,
No more the bee hums through the day,
Yet art thou fair in sleep!

On all thy trees, on every bough,
Thousands of crystals sparkle now,
Where'er our eyes alight;
Firm on the spotless robe we tread,
Which o'er thy beauteous form is spread,
With glittering hoar-frost bright.

Our Father kind, who dwells above,
For thee this garment pure hath wove,
He watches over thee.
Therefore in peace, thy slumber take,
Our Father will the weary wake,
New strength, new light to see.

Soon to the breath of spring's soft sighs,
Delighted thou again wilt rise,
In wond'rous life so fair.
I feel those sighs breathe o'er the plain,
Dear Nature, then rise up again
With flower-wreaths in thy hair.

MIGRATION OF HERRINGS.

THE great winter rendezvous of the herring is within the arctic circle, and there they spend many months of the year. In the spring, this mighty army begins to put itself in motion. We distinguish the united shoals by that name, because the word herring comes from the German *heer*, an army, and expresses their number. They begin to appear off the Shetland Isles in April and May; these are only the forerunners of the great shoal which comes in June; and their appearance is marked by the numbers of birds, as gannet, and other sea-fowl, which come to prey upon them. When the main body appears, its breadth and depth are such as to alter the appearance of the very ocean. It is divided into distinct columns of five or six miles in length, and three or four in breadth, and they drive the water before them with a kind of rippling: sometimes they sink, for the space of ten or fifteen minutes, and then rise again to the surface: and in fine weather reflect a variety of splendid colours, like a field of the most precious gems; in which light this gift of Providence ought in very truth to be viewed.

The first check this army meets with, in its journey south, is from the Shetland Isles, which divide it into two parts; one wing takes to the eastern, the other to the western, shores of Great Britain, and fill every bay and creek with their numbers; others pass on towards Yarmouth, the great and ancient mart of herrings; they then pass through the British Channel, and after that disappear. The other wing, which takes a westerly direction, after presenting themselves at the Hebrides, where the great stationary fishery is, proceed to the north of Ireland, where they meet with a second interruption, and are obliged to divide again; one party takes the west of Ireland, and is soon imperceptible in the immensity of the Atlantic; but the other shoal passing into the Irish Sea feeds the inhabitants of its coasts. These last are often capricious in their motions, and do not, like the grand body, show an invariable attachment to their old haunts. The object which induces this yearly migration, is the spawning, or depositing of their eggs.

Herrings are found, also, in vast shoals, on the coasts of America, as low down as Carolina. Chesapeak Bay is inundated with them. We find them also in Kamtschatka, and they probably visit Japan. The Dutch are passionately fond of pickled herrings, and the first boat that arrives, is entitled to a prize. The herring dies as soon as it is taken out of the water; hence the proverb *as dead as a herring*. The Dutch call a merry-andrew, *pickle-herring*, and from this, also, we borrow some colloquial expressions.

LONDON:
JOHN WILLIAM PARKER, WEST STRAND.
PUBLISHED IN WEEKLY NUMBERS, PRICE ONE PENNY, AND IN MONTHLY PARTS, PRICE SIXPENCE.

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THE

Saturday Magazine.

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THE TIMBER-FLOATS OF GERMANY AND ITALY.

FLOATING TIMBER IN LOMBARDY.

PROBABLY but few of our readers think of the means by which *timber* is conveyed from the forest where it grows, to the spots where it is to be applied to the purposes of building. And yet it must be evident that the means of transport form a matter of no small importance. We know that our timber-yards are plentifully supplied with the various kinds of wood necessary for building; and that the timbers are shaped by the axe and the saw. But, in most cases, the wood which we employ is brought from foreign countries, often many miles inland. It is conveyed across the ocean in ships; but the mode of transporting it from the forests where it grows to the ports where it is to be shipped, is a curious subject, and one well worthy of a little attention.

The main circumstance that forms the groundwork of all the plans adopted for this purpose is, that nearly all kinds of wood are, bulk for bulk, lighter than water, and will consequently swim on its surface. Now as all countries are, more or less, intersected by rivers, which flow from the interior into the sea, a very simple and economical mode of transport for timber is at once attained, by causing it to float down running streams, either by the mere force of the descending water, or aided by mechanical agents. There is no necessity that each piece of wood should be floated separately down the stream; for they may be fastened together, and steered down the middle of the river, in the form of a long and broad raft.

Beckmann says:—

It is probable that the most ancient mode of constructing vessels for the purpose of navigation, gave rise to the first idea of conveying timber in the like manner; for the earliest ships or boats were nothing else than rafts, or a collection of beams and planks bound together, over which were placed deals. By the Greeks they were called *schedai*, and by the Latins *rates*; and it is known, from the testimony of many writers, that the ancients ventured out to sea with them, on piratical expeditions, as well as to carry on com-

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merce; and that after the invention of ships, they were still retained for the transportation of soldiers and of heavy burdens."

There are some passages in the Bible which allude to the floating of wood. 1 Kings v. 9: "My servants shall bring them down from Lebanon unto the sea; and I will convey them by sea in floats unto the place that thou shalt appoint me." 2 Chron. ii. 16: "And we will cut wood out of Lebanon, as much as thou shalt need; and we will bring it to thee in floats by sea to Joppa, and thou shalt carry it up to Jerusalem." These passages relate to a compact between Solomon and Hiram, king of Tyre, by which the latter was to cause cedars for the building of the Temple to be cut down on the western side of Mount Lebanon, above Tripoli, and to be floated to Jaffa or Joppa, probably along by the sea shore.

The Romans transported by water, both timber for building and fire-wood. When, during their wars against the Germans, they became acquainted with the qualities of the common *larch*, they caused large quantities of it to be carried on the river Po, to Ravenna from the Alps, particularly the Rhætian, and to be conveyed also to Rome, for their most important buildings. Vitruvius says, that this timber was so heavy that the waters could not support it, and that it was necessary to carry it in ships or on rafts. Could it have been brought to Rome conveniently, says he, it might have been used with great advantage in building. It has also been supposed that the Romans procured fire-wood from Africa, and that it was brought partly in ships and partly on rafts.

But it is in Germany that the transportation of timber by means of floats has been most extensively carried on, partly on account of its noble forests, and partly through the possession of the river Rhine. There is evidence of floating of timber-rafts in Germany as far back as the year 1410. A letter from the Landgrave of Thuringia says, that on account of the scarcity of wood that existed in their territory, the landgraves had so far lessened the toll usually paid on the river Sale as far as Weissenfels, that a Rhenish florin only was demanded for *floats* brought on that river to Jena, and two Rhenish stivers for those carried to Weissenfels; but the proprietors of the floats were bound to be answerable for any injury occasioned to the bridges.

In 1438, Hans Munzer, an opulent citizen of Freyberg, with the assistance of the then burgo-masters, put a float of wood upon the river Mulda, which runs past the city, in order that it might be conveyed thither for the use of the inhabitants: this seems to imply that such a practice was not then uncommon. When the town of Aschersleben was adorned with a new church, in 1495, the timber used for its construction was transported on the Elbe, from Dresden to Acken, and from thence on the Achse to the place of its destination. In the year 1564, there was a float-master in Saxony, who was obliged to give security to the amount of four hundred florins; so that the business of floating must, at that time, have been of considerable importance.

When the citizens of Paris had used all the timber growing near the city, the enormous expense of land carriage, led to the suggestion of an improved mode of transport. John Rouvel, a citizen and merchant, in the year 1549, proposed to transport timber, bound together, along rivers which were not navigable for large vessels. With this view he made choice of the forests in the woody district of Morvant, which belonged to the government of Nivernois; and as several small streams and rivulets had their sources there, he endeavoured to convey into them as much water as possible. This great undertaking, at first laughed at, was completed by his successor, René Arnoul, in 1566. The wood was thrown into the water in single trunks, and suffered to be driven in that manner by the current to Crevant, a small town on the river Yonne; where each timber-merchant drew out his own, which he had previously marked, and, after it was dry, formed it into floats that were transported from the Yonne to the Seine, and thence to the capital. By this method large quantities of timber were conveyed to the populous towns.

A similar mode of transporting timber from the central parts of Germany to the great towns or to the sea ports, is practised at the present day. Mr. Planché, in his *Descent of the Danube*, says:—

Below this bridge, (at Plattling on the Danube,) the raft-masters of Munich, who leave that city every Monday for Vienna, unite their rafts before they enter the Danube. They descend the Isar upon single rafts only; but upon reaching this point they lash them together, in pairs, and in fleets of three, four, or six pairs, they set out for Vienna. A voyage is made pleasantly enough upon these floating islands, as they have all the *agrémens*, without the confinement, of a boat. A very respectable promenade can be made from one end to the other, and two or three huts erected upon them afford shelter in bad weather, and repose at night.

But the anonymous author of *An Autumn near the Rhine* gives a more detailed account of the timber-rafts of Germany, of which we will avail ourselves. A little below Andernach, on the banks of the Rhine, the little village of Namedy appears on the left bank, under a wooded mountain. The Rhine here forms a little bay, where the pilots are accustomed to unite together the small rafts of timber, floated down the tributary rivers into the Rhine, and to construct enormous floats, which are navigated to Dordrecht and sold. These machines have the appearance of a floating village, composed of twelve or fifteen little wooden huts, on a large platform of oak and deal timber. They are frequently eight or nine hundred feet long, and sixty or seventy in breadth. The rowers and workmen sometimes amount to seven or eight hundred, superintended by pilots and a proprietor, whose habitation is superior in size and elegance to the rest. The raft is composed of several layers of trees, placed one on the other, and tied together. A large raft draws not less than six or seven feet water. Several smaller ones are attached to it, by way of protection, besides a string of boats, loaded with anchors and cables, and used for the purpose of sounding the river, and going on shore. The domestic economy of an East Indiaman is hardly more complete. Poultry, pigs, and other animals, are to be found on board, and several butchers are attached to the suite. A well-supplied boiler is at work night and day in the kitchen. The dinner-hour is announced by a basket stuck on a pole, at which signal the pilot gives the word of command, and the workmen run from all quarters to receive their allowances.

The consumption of provisions in the voyage to Holland is almost incredible, sometimes amounting to forty or fifty thousand pounds of bread, eighteen or twenty thousand pounds of fresh meat, a considerable quantity of salt meat, and butter, vegetables, &c., in proportion. The expenses are so great, that a capital of three or four hundred thousand florins is considered necessary to undertake a raft. Their navigation is a matter of considerable skill, owing to the abrupt windings, the rocks and shallows of the river; and some years ago the secret was thought to be monopolized by a boatman of Rudesheim and his son.

Dr. Granville, in his *Journey to St. Petersburgh*, has also given a description of this remarkable floating

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timber village, which he has also illustrated by an engraving.

The subject of our frontispiece is the first beginning of such a raft. The bridge is called Pont d'Alto, and is situated near Agordo, in the Venetian Lombardy district of Belluno. Under this curious wooden bridge flows a small stream, which empties itself into a larger. The surface of this stream is seen to be covered with scattered pieces of timber, which have been brought down from forests near the banks, and precipitated into the stream. When these timbers, whose number receives constant accessions in the journey, reach a particular spot, they are all bound together, to form one continuous raft, and in that form floated to the place of their destination.

A DISCOURSE ON GEOLOGY.

I.

Nature of Geology.

"Curiosity," it has been well observed, "is one of the most distinctive faculties of the human mind; one of those which establish a marked separation between man, and the rest of the animal creation:"

> ——— For of all
> The inhabitants of earth, to man alone
> Creative Wisdom gave to lift his eye
> To truth's eternal measures.

But though curiosity, or the love of investigation, is one of man's best faculties when directed to an end really worthy of him, it is capable of being misdirected and misapplied. It becomes, therefore, of paramount importance that this principle, so active in all intelligent minds, should be guided into channels, where it may not only find free scope for its exercise, but the most exalted ends for its ultimate object. Such are "the sacred paths of nature and of science." The grandest discoveries, and the inventions of the greatest use to mankind,—the sublime truths of astronomy, electro-magnetism, the steam-engine, the telescope, the microscope,—are all the result of long-continued research, ennobled by their object; and the same principle is still stimulating us to extend the range of our knowledge, and to fathom the hidden mysteries of nature.

In modern times, science appeared to have made such great progress, that we scarcely could have expected any new track would have been opened equally rich in discoveries with those disclosed by the telescope or the microscope. Yet the investigation of the ground we daily tread under foot, has, during the last half century, in the hands of Smith, Cuvier, and a host of other scientific men, become a science peculiary fertile in novelties, not only deeply interesting to the geologist, but strikingly attractive to all who look with wonder and curiosity on the visible works of the Creator.

Geology, indeed, may be regarded as a science necessarily dependant on the advanced state of the natural sciences; for its conclusions have only been established by these means, and it can scarcely be said to have existed as a science until chemistry, zoology, botany, and mechanics, were applied to the explanation of the phenomena it presents. A general acquaintance with science is, therefore, of the greatest possible advantage to the geological student. Yet, nevertheless, to those unpossessed of these acquirements, geology may form a highly engaging pursuit; for it is a science of observation, and is directed to objects immediately within our reach,—to the rocks and cliffs on the shore; to the beds exposed to our view in the excavations of a road; to the very pebbles scattered in our path *,—all of which will derive an infinitely higher interest, if regarded with reference to the phenomena of geology, and to those changes which have been instrumental in imparting to them their actual form, or present arrangement.

Sir John Herschel tells us, that geology, in the magnitude and sublimity of the objects of which it treats, undoubtedly ranks in the scale of the sciences next to astronomy. To those who are in some measure acquainted with the immensity of the field into which astronomy guides her votaries, but to whom geology is as yet "a sealed book," this assertion may appear to assign too exalted a station to the latter science. The distances treated of in astronomy are so immense, and the time required for the completion of some of the celestial cycles so vast, that they elude the grasp of our comprehension: "What, then, is there in geology," may such inquire, "to compete with the myriads of years to which astronomy directs our attention?" To this the geologist will reply, that by careful researches into the rocks and beds of the earth, we learn that periods approaching to, if not equalling the myriads of years of the astronomer, have apparently been required for the accomplishment of all the changes on the surface of the globe. And if geology may yield to astronomy in the vastness of the space over which it ranges, and in the former science our views are confined to the observation of only a limited portion of one small planet, the indications it displays of the Mighty Hand that rules the universe, are scarcely less striking, and perhaps fully as impressive, from their capability of being brought more immediately under our own inspection.

The difference between the sciences of astronomy and geology may be compared to that of the discoveries effected by the telescope and the microscope:—the one reveals to us objects of vast magnitude concealed from us by their immense distance; the other discloses objects hidden from us by their almost incomprehensible minuteness.

Geology shows us that "the configuration of the earth's surface has been re-modelled again and again; mountain chains have been raised or sunk; valleys have been formed, again filled up, and then re-excavated; sea and land have changed places. Yet throughout all these revolutions, animal and vegetable life has been sustained: these changes in the condition of the earth having been accompanied by corresponding changes in organic bodies, adapting them to those altered conditions;—the succession of living beings having been continued by the introduction into the earth from time to time of new plants and animals, evidently admirably adapted for successive states of the globe †."

It being, then, an ascertained fact, that we repeatedly see the commencement of new races, we are obliged again and again to have recourse to a supreme Intelligence and a creative power. "If we examine the marine remains of the strata, we find that whole genera of shells, which in the present seas are most abundant in species, were not in existence till after the chalk was deposited. Other genera again originated about the middle of the series, and soon became extinct, being represented by no species in the Tertiary strata, that is, the strata above the chalk. These new creations supplied the place of other races which perished; for some genera are peculiar to the lower groups of rocks, not a single

* The author has, not unfrequently, met with well preserved fossils among the pebbles of a garden gravel walk

† Lyell, *Address to Geological Society*.

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species of them occurring higher in the series than the coal-measures. There are a few, and but a few, genera, which, commencing in the lowest fossiliferous strata, have endured through all the changes to which the earth has been subject, and have species existing in the present seas. The changes which occurred in the organization of fishes appear to have been greater and more rapid, and exhibit a wider difference between those found above and below the chalk, than is observable in the case of molluscs.

"The same proofs of organic changes are afforded by the study of fossil botany. The formations containing vegetable remains may be arranged, according to Professor Henslow, in four groups, representing epochs, during any one of which no very marked difference is observable in the general character of the vegetation; but between any two of these groups the change is striking and decided, most of the genera being different, and none of the species alike.

"We can scarcely be said, at present, to have sufficient data for determining what were the animals inhabiting the land while the earlier strata were being deposited at the bottom of the sea. It is evident that some of our oldest rocks have been derived from the waste of pre-existing land; and, as that land appears to have been clothed with its appropriate vegetation, we have no right to suppose that it was destitute of its appropriate animals. A great ocean like the Pacific, interspersed, like it, with small islands, appears to have prevailed, during the formation of the older strata, over that part of the Northern Hemisphere in which are situated those countries whose geology has been most explored. Small oceanic islands do not, at the present day, contain many mammalia, while they are wholly destitute of the larger kinds; and the discovery of such remains, in an oceanic sediment, after its conversion into dry land, must be an event of very rare occurrence; for however abundant mammalia might be on some distant continent, by the rivers of which their carcases would be drifted down, yet before they could be floated out far to sea, they would be almost certain to be devoured by the carnivorous monsters of the deep; and even supposing them to escape this fate, the chances are very much against the discovery of the spot where these rare remains are concealed, after the bed of the ocean shall be laid dry.

"But whether mammalia existed during the earliest epochs of the world of which we possess geological monuments, and were contemporary with those marine animals imbedded in the lower strata, though, for the reasons above stated, their remains have not yet been discovered; or whether they were not created till a later period, though still before the deposition of the chalk, it is certain that during the tertiary era, when their remains were abundantly entombed in the strata, we can trace the introduction of new races even of those animals. The remains of the land quadrupeds imbedded in the olden Tertiary strata, are chiefly those of extinct *genera*. In the deposits of a more recent period we meet, in these northern latitudes, with the remains of extinct *species* of genera now existing, but existing only in warm climates, such as the elephant, rhinoceros, hippopotamus, &c. And at length we come to peat bogs and alluvial deposits, in which human remains occur, mixed with those of animals now living in the countries where the remains are found, together with a few which have become locally extinct, within the historic period.

"But if the earth's crust furnishes us with evidence, that great and repeated changes have taken place in the organic and inorganic world, it furnishes us with proofs no less clear, that great epochs of time elapsed while these changes were in progress,—epochs so great, that we are tempted to connect them with the secular periods of astronomy to which we have before alluded. There is, however, this difference between the phenomena of astronomy and geology; that in the former, we have a series of events recurring, in a fixed order, after the lapse of fixed intervals of time, whereas in geology, (if we except the interchange between land and sea, and the recurrence of volcanic action after long intervals of repose,) we have no evidence of the repetition of a single phenomenon; much less have we evidence of geological cycles, in which the same events are repeated, again and again, in a stated order, and at stated intervals. Thus, whole orders of fishes, characteristic of the older strata, become extinct, and are succeeded by new races, which in their turn give place to others; and this class of vertebrated animals affords an unbroken record, from the earliest to the most recent geological epoch; the changes which occur in it being more rapid than those which take place among invertebrated animals; but as we ascend in the series of strata, we meet with no instance of the revival of any of the extinct genera or species.

"If we apply ourselves to the task of classifying organized bodies now existing, arranging them in groups, as they differ from or resemble each other in their structure, we find that those forms of each group which are most dissimilar, are connected by a series of gradations, separated from each other by the most minute distinctions, and that the groups, whether we regard the larger or the subordinate divisions, are again connected by forms possessing some of the characteristics of two groups."

A very close analogy is thus found to exist between extinct and recent species, so as to leave no doubt on the mind, that the same harmony of parts and beauty of contrivance which we admire in the living creature has also characterized the organic world at remote periods.

For all are equally
A link of Nature's chain
Formed by the Hand that formed me,
Which formeth nought in vain.

"The geologist, therefore, can bring new and original arguments to bear upon those parts of natural theology which impress us with exalted conceptions of the intelligence, power, wisdom, and unity, of design, manifested in the creation.

"That the most perfect unity of plan can be traced in the fossil world, through all the modifications it has undergone, is admitted by all geologists, and also that we can distinctly carry back our researches to times antecedent to the existence of the human species. It can be proved that man had a beginning, and that all the species now contemporary with man, and many others which preceded these races, had also a beginning. And thus, as we increase our knowledge of the inexhaustible variety displayed in living nature, and admire the wisdom and power which it displays, geology will incalculably increase our admiration of the works of creation, by suggesting the reflection that the present order of things is only the last of a great series, of which we cannot estimate the number or the limit in the past ages of the world*."

* LYELL's *Anniversary Address*, 1837

[Abridged from ZORNLIN's *Recreations in Geology*.]

THE moral of that poetical fiction, that the uppermost link of all the series of subordinate causes is fastened to Jupiter's chair, signifies that Almighty God governs and directs subordinate causes and effects.—HALE.

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THE SUPPOSED SITE OF NINEVEH.

NINEVEH.

THE Lord will stretch out his hand against the north, and destroy Assyria; and will make Nineveh a desolation, and dry like a wilderness. And flocks shall lie down in the midst of her, and all the beasts of the nations: both the cormorant and the bittern shall lodge in the upper lintels of it; their voice shall sing in the windows; desolation shall be in the thresholds: for he shall uncover the cedar work. This is the rejoicing city that dwelt carelessly, that said in her heart, I am, and there is none beside me: how is she become a desolation, a place for beasts to lie down in! every one that passeth by her shall hiss, and wag his hand.—ZEPHANIAH, ch. ii. v. 13, 14, 15.

THUS did the prophet foretell the future desolation of NINEVEH, when that mighty city was standing in all the pride of power and greatness, and when its people, delighting themselves in the luxuries and pleasures around them, paid little attention to the tidings of approaching ruin. The first mention of this city is in the tenth chapter of Genesis, where it is said—"Out of that land (Shinar) went forth Asshur, and builded Nineveh;" but, from its name, it has been supposed that it was greatly enlarged, and improved by Nimrod or Ninus. Nineveh stood on the banks of the Tigris or Hiddekel river, and was in extent, though not in the amount of its population, almost equal to Babylon. From the description given by the prophet Jonah we find it to have been an exceeding great city of three days' journey, (which must be understood probably of its *circuit*,) and also that it contained "more than six-score thousand persons that could not discern between their right hand and their left," and allowing these *young children* to have been a fifth part of the inhabitants, (Jonah, ch. iv. v. 11,) the whole population must have amounted to 600,000, or about half the present population of London. We are told by the old historian, Diodorus Siculus, that this city was fifteen miles long, nine broad, and forty-eight in circumference. It was surrounded by large walls 100 feet high, upon the top of which three chariots could pass together abreast, and was defended by 1500 towers, each 200 feet high. The city was first taken by the Medes and Babylonians in the reign of Sardanapalus, 747 years B.C., after having been for 1450 years mistress of the East, and holding in subjection even Babylon itself. Nineveh, however, was still of great importance, and afterwards resumed its rank as a capital city and the seat of government, until Nabopolassar, a general in the Assyrian army, seized on Babylon and made himself king.

Nineveh now began rapidly to decline, and to yield to the power of her great rival: in the year 633 B.C., the Medes laid siege to the city under the conduct of Cyaxares, their king, but were diverted from their purpose by an invasion of Media at that time by the Scythian host: Cyaxares withdrew his army from Nineveh in order to repel these invaders, and it was not till the year 612 B.C., that having formed an alliance with the king of Babylon he returned to the siege, accompanied by that monarch, and utterly destroyed the city. On this occasion there was a remarkable fulfilment of the prophecy delivered by Nahum, where speaking of Nineveh he says, "The gates of the rivers shall be opened, and the palace shall be dissolved,"—(chap. ii. v. 6:) for the Medes and Babylonians were enabled to gain entrance to the city, by means of a flood of the Tigris, which carried away a part of the wall, two miles in extent, and facilitated their assault. The carelessness and drunkenness of the inhabitants, likewise, gave the enemy every advantage, and became the fulfilment of another part of Nahum's prophecy: "For while they be folden together as thorns, and while they are drunken as drunkards, they shall be devoured as stubble fully dry,"—(Nahum, ch. i. v. 10.) Two hundred years before this event, the prophet Jonah had been sent to announce the fall of their city; but the repentance and humiliation of both monarch and people averted for a time the threatened calamity. When, however, the danger was removed, the repentance was also forgotten, and the people relapsed into their old sins, notwithstanding the faithful warnings of the prophets, Nahum and Jeremiah; and thus brought on themselves the final destruction of their city, which never appears to have revived or recovered from the assaults of the Medes and Babylonians, but to have sank in rapid decay. It is never after mentioned in Scripture, as a city then in existence; nor does any profane author speak of it except as in a ruined state.

The site of Nineveh is now uncertain; but on the eastern bank of the Tigris, and at about three quarters of a mile from that stream, the village of Nunia, and a sepulchre which is shown as that of the prophet Jonah, seem to point out the position of that celebrated city. The ruins in the vicinity of this village were examined by Mr. Kinneir in 1810, and he found them

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to consist of a rampart and a fosse, forming an oblong square, not exceeding four miles in compass. He saw neither stone nor rubbish of any kind; and he speaks of the wall as bearing traces of having belonged to some city of much less dimensions than Nineveh, and as probably having formed part of Ninus, a city afterwards erected on the same spot. The opinions of this traveller are entitled to the more respect, when we remember, that of Babylon, whose walls were at least as high and as thick as those of ancient Nineveh, not the slightest trace is in existence, and it seems therefore unreasonable to suppose, that the ruins of the elder city should be still visible. Mr. Rich, however, who visited the spot in 1820, is inclined to the opinion that these ruins formed part of the ancient city: he supposes the space enclosed by the walls, to have contained the citadel and royal palace; he describes the situation of several artificial mounds both within and without the walls, whose antiquity is well ascertained by the remains which are found by digging deeply into them; such as cylinders, fragments of sculptured stone, bricks, and pieces of gypsum with inscriptions. Among other curiosities, an immense block of stone has been dug from one of these mounds, on which are sculptured the figures of men and animals.

The differing opinions of travellers with respect to the antiquity of the ruins still remaining in this place, and the great uncertainty which must always exist on the subject, are in themselves sufficient to testify to the fulfilment of prophecy. The desolation of Nineveh is complete: "an utter end is made of the place*," and its true site may for ever be sought for in vain.

* Nahum, ch. i. v. 8.

How sweet a thing is *Death*, to all who know
That all on earth is vanity and woe;
Who, taught by sickness, long have ceased to dread
The stroke that bears them to this peaceful bed!
Few are our days, yet while those days remain,
Our joy must yield to grief, our ease to pain;
Then tell me, weary pilgrim! which is best,—
The toilsome journey—or the traveller's rest?—?

THE Japanese are extremely singular in some of their religious opinions. They never supplicate the gods in distress; holding that, as the gods enjoy uninterrupted bliss, such supplications would be offensive to them. Their holydays, accordingly, are dedicated to feasts, weddings, and all public and private rejoicings. It is delightful to the gods, say they, to see men happy. They are far from being singular in thinking that a benevolent Deity is pleased to see men happy; but nothing can be more inconsistent with the common feelings of men, than to hold, that in distress, it is wrong to supplicate the Author of our being for relief, and that He will be displeased with such supplication. In deep affliction, there is certainly no balm equal to that of pouring out the heart to a benevolent Deity, and expressing entire resignation to His will.——LORD KAMES.

HAPPINESS, though necessarily involving present pleasure, is the direct or indirect, and often the very distant, result of feelings of every kind, pleasurable, painful, and indifferent. It is like the beautiful profusion of flowers which adorn our summer fields: in our admiration of the foliage, and the blossoms, and the pure air and sunshine, in which they seem to live, we almost forget the darkness of the soil in which their roots are spread. Yet how much should we err, if we were to consider them as deriving their chief nutriment from the beams that shine around them, in the warmth and light of which we have wandered with joy. That delightful radiance alone would have been of little efficacy, without the showers, from which, in those very wanderings, we have often sought shelter; or, at least, without the dews, which were unheeded by us, as they fell silently and almost insensibly on our evening walk.—BROWN.

THE VARIED POWERS OF MAN.

ONE considerable distinction between men and animals is that the latter, for the most part, are limited to the regions suited to each separate species, while men place their habitations and thrive in every portion of the globe. This is very strikingly true of the more important and larger animals. The lion is found only in the warm countries of Asia and Africa, and though he may have formerly been seen further north, yet it appears that he could not thrive in such a climate. The species of apes which are most like man are few in number, and inhabit only small districts of hot regions; and when carefully removed to France or England, cannot be preserved against those diseases which arise from great sensibility to cold. The various tribes are confined within very narrow limits; the orang-otang is found only in the island of Borneo, and the chimpanzee on the west of Africa. The same is true of the camel, which thrives only in hot sandy countries; and of the elephant, the Asiatic species of which may be certainly distinguished from the African. The American animals differ from those of the old world, and those of New Holland from all others. Man, on the contrary, lives in the arctic, and multiplies in the torrid zone. His hardy frame remains uninjured amid the cold of a Siberian or of a North American winter, where the mercury freezes in the thermometer. It is even stated, that on the shores of Hudson's Bay, brandy froze in the rooms of some Englishmen, in which they kept fires. Yet the Esquimaux and Canadians go about hunting in this temperature, and three Russians lived six years on Spitzbergen, eleven degrees nearer to the pole than the arctic circle. On the other hand, the most populous parts of Asia are the hottest, and the islands immediately under the equator are fully peopled. America is inhabited through all degrees of latitude from Terra del Fuego to the Northern Ocean. The sultry interior of Africa swarms with a negro population. In Senegal, in Sierra Leone, in the deserts of South America, in South Carolina, the thermometer at its highest point ranges from 100° to 115°. And not only does man thus exist everywhere, but he exists in hundreds of millions. The same capability for occupying all situations is observable in his being placed on plains, in mountains, in the lowest situations, and on positions so high that the pressure of the atmosphere is reduced to two-thirds what it is on the medium surface of the earth.

It is evident that, to a creature distributed so extensively over the face of the earth, every kind of food must be acceptable, as it would be impossible for him to find the same descriptions of produce in situations so dissimilar. In those extreme latitudes where the cold locks up the ground to all vegetation during the far greater portion of the year, the inhabitants find it both necessary and wholesome to live on a diet of flesh. The habits of some of these people show that even what would disgust ourselves is not in itself injurious. The natives of Greenland, when they catch a seal, bury it till wanted, and then devour the half-putrid, half-frozen flesh as a dainty. The Samoiedes take their meat raw, and drink the fresh blood of the rein-deer. On the contrary, the greater part of the people of the torrid zone find it more conducive to health to draw their subsistence from the vegetable productions so abundantly scattered around them. Rice, millet, maize, the roots of the potato, the yam, the cavassa, nuts of several kinds, spices and cooling fruits, are the precious gifts of nature to them. The diet of animals is always suited to the conformation of the stomach; and it would be impossible for a carnivorous animal to subsist on vegetable food, or for a graminivorous one to live on flesh—as indeed it would appear ridiculous to offer hay to a lion, or meat to a cow.

LIKE some vast flood, unbounded, fierce, and strong,
His nature leads ungoverned man along;
Like mighty bulwarks made to stem that tide,
The laws are formed and placed on every side:
Whene'er it breaks the bounds by these decreed,
New statutes rise, and stronger laws succeed;
More and more gentle grows the dying stream,
More and more strong the rising bulwarks seem;
Till, like a miner working sure and slow,
Luxury creeps on, and ruins all below;
The basis sinks, the ample piles decay,
The stately fabric shakes and falls away;
Primeval want and ignorance come on,
But freedom, that exalts the savage state, is gone.
CRABBE.

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ON NEW YEAR'S GIFTS.

It is always pleasant to contemplate those little acts of kindness, which occasionally show that mankind are brothers, born of the same great Father, and formed to assist each other during their sojourn on earth. One of these manifestations of feeling, though trifling in itself, is not contemptible, when considered as a symbol of good wishes: we allude to the presentation of New Year's Gifts.

The origin of this custom seems to have been, that the giving of some trifle on the commencement of the year shall be deemed as a mode of expressing good wishes for the receiver during the year. It is even probable that superstition had its share in the growth of the custom, for we find that it was prevalent among the Romans. Whether it can be traced still farther back we do not know, but there are many records of its existence among that enterprising but superstitious people. The usual presents made were figs and dates, covered with leaf-gold, and sent by clients to patrons, accompanied with a piece of money, which was spent in purchasing the statues of deities. An *amphora*, or ancient Roman jar, has been described by Fosbrooke, on which was an inscription, denoting that it was a New Year's Gift from the potters to their patroness. Caylus has described a piece of pottery with an inscription, wishing "A happy new year to you;" another, where a person wishes it to himself and his son; and three medallions with the laurel-leaf, fig, and date, and an inscription wishing a happy new year to the Emperor. New Year's Gifts were continued under the Roman Emperors till the time of Claudius; but when the Christian religion spread through the different countries of Europe, certain pagan ceremonies which often accompanied the presentation of the Gifts were dispensed with.

But although ceremonies inconsistent with Christianity were banished from the custom, the Gifts themselves, as tokens of good will, still continued; and there are abundant proofs of the prevalence of the custom in past ages as well as the present. In a poem nearly three centuries old, are the following lines:—

The next to this is New Yeare's Day, whereon to every frende,
They costly presents in do bring, and Newe Yeare's Gifts do sende.
These Giftes the husband gives his wife, and father eke the childe,
And maister on his men bestowes the like, with favour milde,
And good beginning of the yeare they wishe and wishe againe,
According to the auncient guise of heathen people vaine.
These eight days doth no man require his dettes of any man,
Their tables do they furnish out with all the meate they can;
With marchpaynes, tartes and custards great, they drink with staring eyes,
They rowte and revell, feede and feaste, as merry all as pyes:
As if they should at th' entrance of this New Yeare hap to dye,
Yet would they have their bellies full, and auncient friends allie.

Monarchs seem to have been in the habit of *expecting* New Year's Gifts. Henry the Third is said to have *extorted* them (a curious mode of obtaining a gift). It has been supposed by Dr. Drake, that the immense wardrobe known to have been possessed by Queen Elizabeth, was in great part formed from New Year's Gifts presented to her by her nobility. It appears, from Mr. Nichols's *Progresses*, that the greatest part, if not all the peers and peeresses of the realm, all the bishops, the chief officers of state, and several of the queen's household servants, even down to her apothecaries, master-cook, serjeant of the pantry, &c., gave New Year's Gifts to her Majesty, consisting, in general, either of a sum of money, or jewels, trinkets, wearing apparel, &c. The largest sum given by any temporal lord was twenty pounds; but the Archbishop of Canterbury gave forty pounds, the Archbishop of York thirty pounds, and the other spiritual lords twenty or ten pounds each. Many of the temporal lords and great officers, and most of the peeresses, gave rich gowns, petticoats, silk stockings, garters, doublets, embroidered mantles, looking-glasses, fans, bracelets, jewel-caskets, &c. Among individual gifts which have been recorded, are the following curious collection: Sir Gilbert Dethick, Garter king at arms, gave a book of the States in William the Conqueror's time; Absalon, master of the Savoy, gave a Bible covered with cloth of gold, garnished with silver gilt, and plates of the royal arms; the Queen's physician presented her with a box of foreign sweetmeats; another physician presented her with a box of green ginger, and a pot of orange flowers; her apothecaries gave her a box of lozenges, a box of ginger candy, a box of green ginger, and pots of other conserves; Mrs. Blanch Parry gave her Majesty a little gold comfit-box and spoon; Mrs. Morgan gave a box of cherries, and one of apricots; the queen's master-cook, and her serjeant of the pantry, presented her with various confectionary and preserves; Putrino, an Italian, gave her two pictures; Ambrose Lupo gave her a box of lute-strings, and a glass of sweet water; a cutler gave her a meat knife, having a handle which opened like a fan; Jeremy Bassano gave two drinking-glasses; and Smythe, *the dustman*, presented her Majesty with two bolts of cambric. It is said that Elizabeth's presents in return, were always of far *less* value than those she received.

While speaking of New Year's Gifts to royalty, we may mention that a journalist about fifteen years ago, stated that presents are always given by the different members of the royal family of France, to each other, on New Year's Day. It was stated: "For the six months preceding January, 1824, the female branches of the royal family were busily occupied in preparing presents of their own manufacture, which would fill at least two common-sized wagons. The Duchess de Berri painted an entire room of japanned panels, to be set up in the palace; and the Duchess of Orleans prepared an elegant screen. An English gentleman who was admitted suddenly into the presence of the Duchess de Berri two months before, found her, and three of her maids of honour, lying on the carpet, painting the legs of a set of chairs, which were intended for the king."

To descend from royalty to the humbler classes of society, we find the custom showing itself in various ways. Bourne says,—"If I send a New Year's Gift to my friend, it shall be a token of my friendship; if to my benefactor, a token of my gratitude; if to the poor, which at this season must never be forgot, it shall be to make their hearts sing with joy, and give praise and adoration to the Giver." This truly amiable sentiment may represent the motives of kindness which induce this custom. The *form* in which a present is given is a trifle: the kindly feeling which it is meant to convey is the real kernel; the other is but the shell. Sometimes an orange stuck with cloves used to form the gift; at other times gloves; metal pins (when wooden skewers were commonly used in lieu of them,) were an acceptable present to females. The presentation of almost any trifle was, and even now is, considered a memento of good feeling at this season. In an old poem, cited in Poole's English Parnassus, are these lines:—

The King of Light, father of aged Time,
Hath brought about that day that is the prime
To the slow-gliding months, when every eye
Wears symptoms of a sober jollity;
And every hand is ready to present
Some service in a real compliment.

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Whilst some in golden letters write their love,
Some speak affection by a ring or glove,
Or pins and points, (for e'en the peasant may,
After his ruder fashion, be as gay
As the brisk courtly Sir,) and thinks that he
Cannot, without gross absurdity,
Be this day frugal, and not spare his friend
Some gift, to show his love finds not an end
With the deceased year.

A copy of verses was often used as a New Year's Gift. Buchanan presented a copy of verses to the unfortunate Mary, Queen of Scots, on New Year's Day. An old manuscript in the British Museum, states, that the boys of Eton school used on this day to play for New Year's Gifts, before and after supper; and also to make verses, which they presented to the provost and masters, and to each other.

In some districts of Scotland it was formerly the custom for servant-maids to present a New Year's Gift to their masters. It was also customary there, as well as in the North of England, for a house to be entered very early on the morning of New Year's Day, by some young men and maidens, selected for the purpose, who presented a spiced bowl, and expressed good wishes to the inhabitants. It was likewise a custom to *send* New Year's Gifts on New Year's Eve; and on New Year's Day, to wish each other a happy New Year, and *ask* for a New Year's Gift.

In France the presentation of trinkets on New Year's Day is carried to a very great extent. The prevailing present is a little case, made of sweetmeats, in which is contained some little trinket or other. The making of these sweetmeat-cases is carried on to an enormous extent at Paris, just before the New Year. There is one street, the *Rue des Lombards*, where the wholesale confectioners reside, which is said at this period to be almost blocked up with wagons and carts, laden with cases of sweetmeats for the provinces. These little sweetmeats assume almost every imaginable form, such as bunches of carrots, green peas, boots and shoes, lobsters and crabs, hats, books, musical instruments, gridirons, frying-pans, saucepans, &c.,—all made of sugar, and coloured to imitate the real object, and all being made hollow within, to contain some trinket, or *bon-bon*. Pastry-cooks may also be seen traversing the streets, carrying boards, on which are miniature temples, churches, pagodas, theatres, &c., all made of flour and sugar, and tastefully embellished. The value of the sweetmeats alone presented or bought in Paris on this day is said to amount to half a million francs. The value of the jewellery presented is very large. Friends visit each other on the morning of the day, and interchange presents. No person pays a visit empty-handed: each one gives according to his or her means, and everything is accepted when offered. The ladies come in for a large share of these presents, in the form of dresses, jewellery, gloves, artificial flowers, &c.

One feature which has distinguished New Year's Gifts among the higher classes in England, within the last few years, is the presentation of the splendid *Annuals*, published for that express purpose. The number of copies of these rather costly volumes sold is very large; and they are distinguished by elegance and lightness, rather than by sterling literary merit. It was also an old custom for the Poet Laureate to compose an ode on the new year, which every New Year's Day was presented to the reigning sovereign; but this practice is now discontinued, probably on account of the bad taste usually connected with hired encomiums, and from the feeling that the spontaneous prayers and good wishes of a great nation for the welfare of the sovereign are far more acceptable than the inflated applause of the Laureate odes

THE PROGRESS OF IMPROVEMENT.

IMPROVEMENT in every possible direction of our external conditions appears to be the ruling tendency of these latter days. The proximate, the mediate, and the remote—each exhibits the superior and prevailing influences of this beneficial and ever-busy impulse. Turn our eyes wheresoever we may, we meet everywhere some proof of its agency, or some result of its action, in the trivial as well as important matters of our temporary existence. Every newspaper teems with some desideratum, enlarging our wants by the admirable ingenuity of the supply. To consider even some of the immediate objects of its energy,—Morison's pills, the universal internal panacea,—Macintosh s capes, the universal external preservative,—our unrivalled hair-dyes,—our surpassing-excellent patent spring wigs,—the thousands of infallible cures, mocking Death himself in all his favourite points of assault,—our very doors swung upon patent spherical hinges, moving more after the manner of ghosts in old romances, than the real creaking doors of other days,—and the graver and greater boast of this the nineteenth century, steam itself: power in the very abstract and essence, susceptible of infinite uses and application, small and magnificent. What more need we enumerate, from the patent damp-expelling respirator, to the puddle-resisting Indian-rubber clog? Rise and reverence, ye ancient men of less favoured times, and more barbarous paraphernalia.

So far this is satisfying; nay more, a matter of no little exultation and delight. But amidst this hubbub of luxuries, convenience, and accommodation, the still small voice within us pushes forward an inquiry of far more interest and concern. How have things gone on in the internal sphere of man's nature—the world of character? Is the same busy progress traceable here also? Has vice, in any one of her hideous aspects, disappeared from amongst us? Has virtue improved in quality, or increased in degree? Are kind hearts and noble deeds more plentiful, and their opposites less common? Are men better neighbours, better citizens, and, all in all, better Christians than formerly? This is the anxious investigation of a reflection which teaches us, that however splendid in discoveries, and however far progressing the temporary conditions of our kind may be, they are little to boast of, without a corresponding advance of our moral value, and consequently of our relative dignity. In vain we boast of inventions and improvements, which, however valuable and remarkable they may be, leave us all on the extreme of this world; for naked we came into this world, and naked we go out of it. For our soul alone we take with us, and, so to say, at a moment's call. Then say, Sense, and answer, Philosophy, how does it behove us to cultivate and improve, to ornament with all goodly virtues and qualities, to frame and form in the furnace of trial in this world, the sole thing we carry out of it, to meet the graces of a better.

Let us not therefore boast too much of our present state of cultivation and advancement, nor estimate at too great an importance the spirit of a partial and temporary improvement in our external and contingent condition, as mortal men, while in the higher and eternal matters of our mind and character, its impulses are faint, or altogether wanting.

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ST. OMER'S, IN FRANCE. I.

RUINS OF THE ABBEY OF ST. BERTIN, AT ST. OMER.

ST. OMER is a town of much importance in the department of the *Pas-de-Calais*, in France. This department comprises a tract of country which was formerly included in the province of Artois. The reader is probably aware, that during the first French revolution, the mode of dividing the country, for political and legal purposes, was changed: France was, before that time, divided into a moderate number of provinces, or military governments, each of which gave a title to some prince or nobleman. But the modern mode of division is into departments, which are much smaller than the ancient provinces, and of which there are altogether about eighty. Pas-de-Calais (derived from the French name for the Straits of Dover, which are adjoining to the coast) is, then, the district formerly known as Artois.

Pas-de-Calais lies on the north-east coast of France, and is bounded by French Flanders on the north-east, and by the department of Somme on the south, and is divided by a chain of hills into two regions, the southern and the northern. The former slopes gently towards the banks of the river Authie, and is traversed by numerous small valleys; the latter perceptibly inclines towards the north. The face of the country much resembles that of Belgium, and has a climate rather humid and variable, which is the cause of frequent intermitting fevers. The soil is, generally speaking, productive, and a considerable amount of sandy beach has been gained from the sea, and brought into cultivation. The produce is generally corn, hemp, flax, tobacco, coleseed, rapeseed, &c. There is not much wood, but the deficiency is compensated by an abundance of turf and coal. The fisheries along the coast are considerable, but the

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chief part of the revenue of the department is drawn from its manufactures of woollen, cotton, linen, lace, leather, pottery, and oil. Numerous small streams flow through the department, such as the Aa, the Lys, the Scarfe, the Canche, and the Authie. There are also several canals, such as that of Ardres, that of Marq, that from Calais to St. Omer, and that from Calais to Guisnes. The whole department contains a superficial area of about 338 square leagues, and a population of about six hundred and fifty thousand.

Such is the general nature of the department in which St. Omer is situated. The other principal places in it besides the last mentioned town are Calais, Boulogne Arras, Bethune, Montreuil, Guisnes, and Ardres. It was between the two last-named towns that the celebrated interview took place between Henry the Eighth and Francis the First, and which has attained the appellation of *Le Champ du Drap d'Or* (The Field of the Cloth of Gold). The only town of the department to which we shall on the present occasion direct our notice, is St. Omer.

St. Omer formerly gave its name to a noble family which distinguished itself during the time of the Crusades. Galfred, Castellan of St. Omer, one of the companions of Godfrey of Bouillon, was one of the first commanders of the Knights Templars; and for some centuries after that period, his descendants distinguished themselves greatly in the events of the times. The town from which they derived their title was, in 626, only a small hamlet. This hamlet had been gradually built in the vicinity of the castle belonging to the family to whom we allude: this castle was built on Mount Sithon, and the name of Sithon was borne by St. Omer, for a long period. The Castellan Adroald gave the hamlet to St. Omer, bishop of Therouenne, in 645. This possessor afterwards built the cathedral and the monastery of the Bernardines: this monastery was, a few years afterwards, under the rule of St. Bertin, from whom it obtains its name. During the eighth and ninth centuries, the town was by degrees surrounded with walls, and it began to assume the appearance of a fortified place: it also now lost its name of Sithon, and acquired that of St. Omer. A portion of the town was destroyed by fire in the twelfth century. The town was in possession of the Earls of Flanders for many generations; but about the year 1500 there commenced a series of contests in France and the Low Countries which frequently affected St. Omer:—first the French king besieged it;—then the Burgundians gained possession of it;—from them it was taken by the King of France; and from him again, it passed into the hands of the Archduke Maximilian. Again it was attacked by the French on two different occasions in the seventeenth century, and lastly, at the peace of Nimeguen, in 1678, it was finally ceded to the crown of France, to which it has ever since belonged.

According to a French writer of the end of last century, the following was the general nature of the town of St. Omer at that period. It contained six parishes; four convents for men, Capuchins, Recollects, Carmelites, and Dominicans; six monasteries, or religious houses for females; a seminary; and two colleges. There were two hospitals for women, a general hospital, two orphan asylums, one for each sex, and another asylum always occupied by twelve poor and aged men, in memory of the twelve apostles. The chapter of the cathedral was composed of a dean, two archdeacons, a penitentiare, two other dignitaries, thirty canons, and twenty-four chaplains. The same writer states, that "Pope Paul IV. erected St. Omer into a bishopric in 1553. In the later times of the monarchy (meaning before the French revolution) the bishop, a suffragan of Cambray, received fifty thousand livres of rent. But this is little in comparison with the produce of the Abbey of St. Bertin, of which the revenues reach the extent of one hundred and fifty thousand livres. It was composed of fifty religious inmates, who had the choosing of their abbot. The Faubourg of Saint-Pont is beautiful; the number of its houses is very considerable, many of which are inhabited by families originally from Flanders. These families have retained among them their ancient idiom, which is not very different from that spoken in Flanders. They preserve the ancient simplicity of their nation, and in order the better to effect this, they intermarried only among themselves, for which purpose the Pope allowed them certain dispensations on the subject of consanguinity. The priests belonging to them were also allied to them by blood."

So much for St. Omer forty years ago: we must now describe it in its more recent state.

The entrance to St. Omer, by way of Calais, is through an avenue of trees. The trees themselves have a cheerful aspect, as such natural objects always have: but the objects seen in the vista beyond them have a heavy and gloomy effect, consisting of embattled walls, lines of fortification, a gate of enormous strength, a moat with a long bridge over it, barriers, porteullises, &c., all of which indicate that St. Omer must be ranked among the fortified towns with which Flanders was so plentifully supplied in past ages. The passport system is rigorously enforced.

In another article we will briefly describe the principal objects of attraction in St. Omer at the present day.

ON MILITARY DRILLING. I.

IT has been said, with much truth, that the best mode by which a nation can enjoy peace, is to be constantly prepared for war. It is melancholy to reflect upon the misery and vice which war has occasioned in all ages; but still, so long as ambition, avarice, and tyranny continue to influence mankind, war, or at least a state of active preparation for war, will be necessary to insure the independence of the nation, and the liberty of the subject.

Such then being the case, it follows that that nation which most diligently cultivates war as an art, and brings the refinements of science to bear upon its theory and practice, is more likely to be respected, and to remain unmolested, than another nation which ceases to cultivate the military art, and offers no encouragement to its professors.

Considering, therefore, that man is constituted a frail and erring being, whose greatest enemy is himself, we assume that war, or at least a state of active preparation for it, is necessary to the preservation of peace. It becomes then of first-rate importance to consider the best means for practising the military art; and we propose to call the attention of the reader to one department of it, which consists in training numbers of men to act in concert on foot, so as to form a vast moving machine, under the direction and command of skilful leaders.

It is almost needless to expatiate on the wonderful superiority of disciplined troops, though few in number, over savage hordes, which have great animal strength, without the skill to combine and direct it. Hence it has always been found that the most civilized nations have been the most successful in war, because their soldiers are made to understand so perfectly, and to pay so strict an obedience to the example and words of their commanders, that all their movements

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are performed in unison; and the army thus resembles one vast animal, the motions of whose various members are subservient to one object, and are governed and directed by one mind. On the contrary, in an army (if such it can be called) of undisciplined savages, each man is the creature of his own impulses; he follows his own ideas, and adopts that course which seems to him most likely to reward him with success. Thus the whole number of fighting men can seldom be brought to act in unison; and though they may have one common object, they can seldom be brought to agree in following one common mode of effecting that object. As, therefore, the different parts of such a collected multitude are quite independent of each other, so far from augmenting, they sometimes counteract, or, at least, diminish each other's effective force; and as to which of these results shall ensue is entirely dependent on chance. No wonder, then, that a body, acting so promiscuously, should soon be confused, dispersed, or destroyed by a mere handful of men, who understand instantly, and obey at once, the orders of one or of a few commanders; and thus not only direct all their efforts to the same point, but through the same channel.

Discipline and subordination, therefore, constitute one of the chief characteristics of the army of a civilized nation. Different nations employ different kinds and degrees of discipline, but that of Europeans is the most perfect and effective.

We will illustrate the sentiments here expressed by giving, in part, the method used in the English army for DRILLING that is, changing the clumsy rustic into the finished and disciplined soldier, by giving to the body that position and gait, which, when habitually persevered in, is most conducive to health, strength, and all the other qualities of a good and ready soldier, as well as making him understand the peculiar and concise language used in the words of command; so that he may be always ready to obey *instantly* and *correctly* any order that can possibly be given.

In the apprenticeship of men to soldiership, each recruit is first drilled singly, or in *squads*, or small companies of three or four. This is to improve the personal appearance, gestures, and carriage of each individual recruit with reference to himself, so that, when combined in larger numbers, they may all act in unison: then they are taught those other motions and manœuvres, which necessarily require a considerable number of men together for their proper performance. If any of the recruits have not, however, been thoroughly *broken in*, as it were, during the first process, this will soon be discovered when they are associated in large numbers; for the incorrect movement of a single man may sometimes throw a whole line into disorder. Such is the importance of habitually maintaining that steadiness and correctness of behaviour which has once been acquired by drilling, that even the best soldier, after returning from a long absence, must be re-drilled, like a recruit, before he can safely rejoin his company.

When standing in line without arms, and ready to receive the word of command, the position required is as follows:—The heels must touch each other; but the toes must be separated, so that the two feet may form an angle of about 60°. Both knees must be straight, but not stiff; so that the weight of the body may rest equally on both the feet. The body must not incline to one side more than to the other; but yet it must not be strictly upright, but leaning a little forwards, so that its weight may be thrown on the balls of the feet. This is evidently the firmest position for resisting blows, &c. *in front*; because if there be any tendency to fall it is *forwards*, and not *backwards*; which would be the case, if the principal weight rested on the heels. The axis of the body must therefore be *straight*, though not perfectly *upright*. The belly must be rather drawn in, but the breast advanced. The shoulders must be kept back equally, and of equal height, and perfectly square. The arms must hang straight but loosely; and the palms of the hands must touch the thighs. The thumb, which is the foremost part of the hand, must be as far back as the seam of the trowsers. The head must be erect; the eyes directed straight forward towards a point of equal height with themselves; and such is the rigour of military discipline, that no part of the body, not even the eyes, is allowed to move unless in obedience to the word of command. Every command must be instantly obeyed, as soon as the *last syllable* of command is uttered; for all the former syllables are to be considered only in the light of cautions; and as soon as the required movement has been made, the whole body must remain as steady and immoveable in its new position, as it was before. Whenever the word of command "*as you were*" is given, the body returns exactly to the same position, which it had before this last word of command was given.

As it would be very irksome to continue for a long time in the posture just described, without moving, when long standing is expected to be the case, the word "*stand at ease*" is given; on which the right foot is drawn back three or four inches, and the left knee is bent, so as to throw the weight of the body on the right leg only, which is kept straight. At the same time, the hands are brought together and allowed to fall down in front of the body in a clasped state. Care must be taken that this motion of the arm proceeds from the elbow only, and not from the shoulder.

When the rank is to resume the proper attitude of soldiers, the word "*attention*" is given, at which the hands are instantly let fall to the sides, the body springs up, the left leg is straightened, and the heels closed. This is the only order, or word of command, that can ever be given while standing at ease. When standing at ease, the head and eyes are allowed to move; but the rest of the body is to be kept as steady as when standing at *attention*. It is very desirable, therefore, that sometimes, (especially in cold weather,) the soldiers should be allowed to move their limbs and bodies without quitting the rank. In such cases the words "*stand easy*" is given; after which they are at liberty to move their limbs in any direction till again called to *attention*. The left foot, however, must never be lifted or moved from the spot it originally occupied; so that the body is thus confined to a certain space of ground; it cannot move out of the rank; and, when called back to attention, it cannot fail to resume its proper place, which is kept by the *left* foot.

Oh, Charity! our helpless nature's pride,
Thou friend to him, who knows no friend beside,
Is there in morning's breath, or the sweet gale
That steals o'er the tired pilgrim of the vale,
Cheering with fragrance fresh his wearied frame,
Aught like the incense of thy holy flame?
Is aught in all the beauties that adorn
The azure heaven, or purple lights of morn,
Is aught so fair in evening's lingering gleam,
As from thine eye the meek and pensive beam,
That falls like saddest moonlight on the hill,
And distant woods, when the wide world is still?
Thine are the ample views, that unconfined
Stretch to the utmost walks of human kind;
Thine is the spirit, that with widest plan
Brother to brother binds, and man to man.—Bowles.

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RICHMOND CASTLE, YORKSHIRE.

A PORTION of the North Riding of Yorkshire is popularly known by the name of *Richmondshire*, from having, in very early times, been the entire and undivided property of the Earls of Richmond.

Before the Norman conquest, this great estate was possessed by one great Saxon lord; but when William of Normandy took possession of the English crown, the Richmond estate shared a similar fate to that of most other large estates in the kingdom: it was created an earldom, and given to one of William's favourites.

It must be presumed (says Mr. Whitaker), that the man on whom the Conqueror would bestow such a principality must stand high in his favour. But the estate of Earl Edwin was a gem which must be won before it could be worn, and a charter of feoffment could only confer upon the grantee a title to fight his way into possession. Nay more, after possession was acquired, there was equal difficulty in maintaining it. The ejected possessor was one of the most popular as well as powerful men in the kingdom. The Normans were regarded with peculiar detestation in the north of England; and Domesday itself affords a melancholy testimony to the horrible devastation by which alone the native inhabitants could be subdued. A title, however, to subdue so fertile and beautiful a district would not be unacceptable to a Norman soldier. He knew how to curb a wild and disorderly population, without the perpetual necessity of contending with them in the field.

The curb here alluded to was in the shape of a strong castle. In a central situation within the earldom, on the confines of the low country and the mountains, the new possessor selected a rock on the bank of the river Swale, which could not be undermined, and on this spot he lavished all the resources of a great prince, and practised all the skill of Norman fortification, in the construction of a fortress which would at once afford a guarantee to fidelity, and render disaffection and treachery hopeless. Such a structure being both ample and impregnable, would afford protection to the faithful vassals of the earl, who might, by any sudden insurrection, be driven to seek protection within its walls, as well as to accommodate a regular garrison, sufficient to scour the country in every direction. A tumultuary assault, or even a regular siege by such assailants, must, as has been observed by the historian of Richmond, have been despised. But such was the felicity with which a site was chosen for the capital and fortress of the province, that if a disturbance should have happened in the low country, within half an hour a body of horse would be upon the plain, and ready to chase the insurgents; or if, as was more probable, the ruder and more hardy natives of the valleys, trusting to the fastnesses of their neighbouring mountains, presumed to rebel, an active and hardy body of infantry would have no time to waste in traversing the plains, while their enemies above were gathering strength and courage from delay.

Such are believed to be the causes which led to the construction of that fine old Norman building, *Richmond Castle*, in Yorkshire, of which our frontispiece represents a view. It is believed that the castle was commenced by the earl to whom William the Conqueror presented the estate, carried on by his successor, and completed by the third earl; so that we may assume the period of 1100 as *about* the time when the castle was constructed.

There is perhaps not another instance, in the whole of English history, of a great estate changing hands so many times in the course of five hundred years, as that of Richmond. The large extent of the Richmond estate made the early sovereigns glad to seize every pretext for taking it to themselves; and when they possessed it, they were often induced, by policy, to present it to such of their adherents as were most serviceable to them. For a considerable period the estate was possessed by the Dukes of Bretagne, in France, who added to that title the one of Earls of Richmond. It was one of these Dukes of Bretagne who built the great tower or keep of the castle. The estate was seized by Richard Cœur de Lion, on a very slender pretext, and retained for some years. His successor, King John, also retained possession of it for some time, but ultimately made it the purchase-price of the services of Peter de Dreux, who became Earl of Richmond. From this family it was transferred to Peter of Savoy, the uncle to the queen of Henry the Third, but not for any considerable period; for the interests of Henry induced him to manage that the estate should pass into the hands of the Duke of Bretagne, whose ancestors had formerly possessed it.

One of the causes which led to this estate being so frequently passed from one possessor to another was, that the Dukes of Bretagne were, under that title, subjects of the King of France, and, under the title of Earls of Richmond, were also subjects of the King of England; so that whenever the two kings were at war, the possessor retained or lost the estate, according as he sided with or against the King of England. Such an event occurred in the reign of Edward the First. During hostilities with France, Edward took the estate from the Duke of Bretagne, and when peace was restored, gave it back to him again. From this family it passed into the hands of the Countess of Pembroke, and then to Count de Montfort, after that to Edward the Third, and then once again to the Bretagne family. Doomed to perpetual changes of proprietors, the estate was given to the queen of Richard the Second, about the year 1380,—to Ralph Basset in 1391, and to the Earl of Westmoreland in the reign of Henry the Fourth. After remaining several years in this family, it passed to the Dukes of Bedford. From them it devolved upon Henry the Sixth. It was then presented, with the title of Earl of Richmond, to the king's half-brother, whose son Henry defeated Richard the Third, at Bosworth field, and then became sovereign of England, under the title of Henry the Seventh. The estate remained in royal hands till 1613, when James the First created Lodowic Stuart Duke of Richmond.

Such were the mutations which this great estate suffered in early times; we must now speak of the castle itself. In this as in many other cases, the baronial castle led to the construction of a town near it: Richmond Castle did not owe its existence to Richmond town, but the town to the castle.

Our early topographer, Leland, speaking of Richmond town and castle in his day (1540), says:—

Richemont towne is waullid, and the castel on the river side of Swale is as the knot of the cumpace of the waulle. In the waul be 3 gates. Frenchegate yn the north parte of the towne, and is the most occupied gate of the towne. Fuikel-streate gate. Bargate. Al 3 be downe. Vestigia yet remaine. In the market-place is a large chapel of the Trinite. The cumpace of the ruinus waulles is not half a mile about. So that the towne waulle cumpaseth litle but the market-place, the howses about hit, and gardens behind them. There is a suburbe withowt Frenchegate. Fuikel-streat suburbe, strayt west from the market-place, and Bargate suburbe. But Frenchegate suburbe is almost as bygge as bothe the other suburbes. In Frenchgate suburbe is the paroch chirche of al the hole towne. A litle beyonde the ende of Frenchegate streate is, or was, of late, a chapel of a woman anchorete. Bargate suburbe cummith downe to the bridge ende of Swale, the wich bridge is sumtime chayned. A this side the bridge is no building. In this suburbe is a chapel of S. James. At the bakke of the Frenchgate is the Grey Freres a little withowt the wawllis. Their howse, medow, orchard, and a litle wood, is waullid yn. Men go from the market place to hit by a posterne

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RICHMOND CASTLE, YORKSHIRE.

gate. There is a conducte of water at the Grey Freres els there is none in Richemont. Not far from the freres waul is a chapel of S. Anthony. Al the towne and suburbes be on the farther side of Swale. The Castel is nere hand as much yn cumpace as the circuit of the town walle, but now it is in mere ruine.

If the castle was in ruins three hundred years ago, its present appearance may be guessed at :—it is, in truth, one of the finest Norman ruins in the kingdom. The name *Richmond* is supposed to have been derived from *Rich mount*, in allusion to the spot selected for the castle; and the same reason led to the naming of Richmond in Surrey, which also belonged to the Earls of Richmond about four centuries ago. The town of Richmond in Yorkshire first consisted of the habitations of the immediate dependants of the earl: those who were in the castle attended divine worship in an oratory, while the townsmen erected a church near the castle; and it is supposed that the present Trinity chapel was the original church of Richmond.

In process of time various monastic institutions sprang up in the neighbourhood of the castle, which owed their origin to the officers and dependants of the earls. The cell of St. Martin arose in the very infancy of the castle; and, in the opinion of Mr. Whitaker, displays at this moment some vestiges of architecture more ancient than any remaining about the castle itself.

A drawing of Richmond Castle, such as it probably appeared about the reign of Edward the Third, has been discovered, and has enabled antiquaries to compare its former with its present appearance. In the drawing, besides the great tower, the general circuit of the building appears nearly as at present. Scolland's hall seems to have undergone no change; but the chapel, a small building then standing near the south-west corner, is now dilapidated and almost gone. As an outpost to the great tower, and in the weakest part of the precinct, was a small barbican and outer gateway of two cylindrical towers, now destroyed. The moat on the same side is now filled up. The lowest story of the keep has been groined, as usual in the great Norman keeps, upon a central octagonal pillar Mr. Whitaker remarks, that

Such are the changes of all earthly things, that all this mighty apparatus, intended for the defence of a prince and a province, which has sustained the shock of hostile invasion, and resounded with the mirth of assembled multitudes, now serves only to enclose a green area of about five acres, and to secure a few sheep which quietly graze upon its herbage. The feudatories of the earldom beheld in these impregnable walls, and under these floating banners, security and protection against predatory warfare, from which they had no other defence. The modern inhabitant of Richmond, however, while he beholds them dismantled and untenable as an ordinary dwelling-house, rejoices that no such protection is now wanted, that his lot has fallen upon better days, when rapine and hostile alarm have ceased, and when the settled administration of law neither craves nor allows of aid from feudal power.

Although the town of Richmond stands on very uneven ground, and could not be approached but by a very inconvenient road, until within a few years back, yet it is a pleasant, well-built, and handsome town, maintaining with proper dignity the appearance of a capital over so extensive a district as that which bears its name, and was once in a state of feudal dependence upon it. Richmond has never been made the seat of any particular manufacture, to much extent; and it therefore presents much of the simple and rural appearance which a non-manufacturing town usually exhibits.

We are what we are made by the objects that surround us; to expect that a man who sees other objects, and who leads a life different from mine, should have the same ideas that I have, would be to require contradictions. Why does a Frenchman resemble another Frenchman more than a German, and a German much more than a Chinese? Because these two nations, by their education, and the resemblance of the objects presented to them, have an infinitely greater connexion with each other than with a Chinese.—Helvetius.

No radiant pearl which crested fortune wears,
No gem that sparkling hangs from beauty's ears,
Not the bright stars which night's blue arch adorn,
Nor rising sun that gilds the vernal morn,
Shine with such lustre as the tear that breaks,
For others' woe, down virtue's lovely cheeks.

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ON GARDEN HERBS. I.

INTRODUCTION.

Herbs too she knew, and well of each could speak,
That in her garden sipped the silvery dew.
Where no vain flower disclosed a gaudy streak;
But *Herbs* for use, and physic, not a few
Of grey renown, within those borders grew;
The tufted Basil, pun-provoking Thyme,
Fresh Balm, and Marigold of cheerful hue;
The lowly Gill, that never dares to climb;
And more I fain would sing, disdaining here to rhyme.
SHENSTONE'S *Schoolmistress.*

THE subject of the present and some following papers, may appear a very humble one wherewith to entertain the readers of the *Saturday Magazine.* The beauties of the flower-garden or conservatory, the luxuries obtained from the hot-house, or the substantial products of a well-stocked orchard, might have suggested pleasing considerations enough; but a few insignificant herbs,—what can be said of them? they may be attractive to a swarm of bees, that find themselves richly regaled amidst their fragrant blossoms; and we know that a herbary is a convenient and necessary appendage to our kitchen gardens, but beyond this, what interest can there be in garden herbs, and who would take the trouble to bestow attention on them? It is possible that this may be the feeling of a few of our readers, but we are disposed to think that the number of persons is *but* few, who can pass by in disregard the humble, but useful, tribe of vegetables, of which we are about to speak.

In former days, a much greater share of attention was bestowed on herbs, and a much higher degree of virtue ascribed to them, than it is now the custom to pay or ascribe; their effects in the cure of various diseases, in cheering the spirits, and assuaging all sorts of mental as well as bodily anguish, are stated by the old writers, in terms that appear exaggerated and ridiculous. But if the reverence of the old herbalist was superstitious and absurd, the contempt of the modern student for these useful plants is not very wise. The disparagement of what is common, and the over-estimation of all that is rare and difficult to be attained, are weaknesses to which even the most clever and intellectual persons are occasionally liable. Our object, then, in the following papers, will be, to show that Garden Herbs, when considered with reference to their botanical character; their virtues and medicinal qualities, real or reputed; the uses to which they were applied in former times; the employment of them in various ways amongst ourselves; together with the quaint sayings of herbalists, and the historical and poetical associations connected with them; are by no means devoid of interest, or undeserving our attention.

The example of the ancients may likewise teach us to pay some regard to herbs. King Solomon, with all his wisdom, did not consider them beneath his notice; it is declared of him, that "he spake of trees, from the cedar that is upon Lebanon, to the *hyssop that springeth out of the wall.*" The ancient Syrians are said to have had a great predilection for gardening, and for the rearing of pot-herbs. Among the Greeks and Romans, medicinal herb-gardens were highly estimated, and frequently mentioned by their celebrated writers. The Chinese make extensive use of them; and having no schools for the study of physic, they consider it a duty to teach the uses of simples and roots to their families and domestics. The native Americans also have been observed to carry about with them such roots and herbs as they have found to possess beneficial properties.

A considerable degree of superstition appears to have been mixed up with the knowledge of herbs, in all countries where they have been cultivated. The following lines of Virgil will show that a belief in the magical influence of certain plants was prevalent among the Romans:—

These poisonous plants, for magic use designed,
(The noblest and the best of all the baneful kind,)
Old Mæris brought me from the Pontic strand,
And culled the mischief of a bounteous land.
Smeared with these powerful juices, on the plain
He howls, a wolf among the hungry train:
And oft the mighty necromancer boasts
With these, to call from tombs the stalking ghosts,
And from the roots to tear the standing corn,
Which, whirled aloft, to distant fields is borne:
Such is the power of spells.——

In our own country witchcraft and the knowledge of herbs were for a long time associated together, and advantage was taken of this circumstance by Shakspeare, in his description of incantations, where he fails not to introduce "root of hemlock," "slips of yew," &c. In the reign of Henry the Eighth, the cultivation of medicinal herbs began to occupy the attention of surgeons and apothecaries; private herb-gardens were planted, and Gerard, called the "Father of English Herbalists," possessed the principal one.

By referring to the works of that excellent man, George Herbert, whose writings are full of originality and beauty, we find the knowledge of herbs to have been considered indispensably requisite to a country clergyman. Herbert wrote his *Priest to the Temple* about the year 1630, and in the admirable rules which he has laid down for the regulation of the pastor's conduct, he especially enforces the duty of attending his flock in sickness; and being himself, as far as it is safe and desirable, their physician. He recommends the study of anatomy and physic, and keeping a herbal at hand. He says that the reading of such subjects and the knowing of herbs

May be done at such times as they may be a help and a recreation to more divine studies, as also by way of illustration, even as our Saviour made plants and seeds to teach the people; for he was the true householder, who bringeth out of his treasure things new and old; the old things of philosophy, and the new of grace; and maketh the one serve the other. In the knowledge of simples, wherein the manifold wisdom of God is wonderfully to be seen, one thing would be carefully observed; which is, to know what herbs may be used instead of drugs of the same nature, and to make the garden the shop; for home-bred medicines are both more easy for the parson's purse, and more familiar for all men's bodies. So where the apothecary useth rhubarb or bolearmena, the parson useth damask or white roses, plantain, shepherd's-purse, and knot grass, with better success. As for spices, he doth not only prefer home-bred things before them, but condemns them for vanities, and so shuts them out of his family, esteeming that there is no spice comparable, for herbs, to rosemary, thyme, savoury, and mints; and for seeds, to fennel and caraway seeds. Accordingly, for salves, his wife seeks not the city, but prefers her garden and fields before all outlandish gums. And surely hyssop, valerian, mercury, adder's tongue, yerrow, melilot, and St. John's-wort, made into a salve, and elder, camomile, mallows, comphrey, and smallage, made into a poultice, have done great and rare cures."

We do not find any mention of a public herb-garden in England previous to the planting of one at Oxford, called by a writer of that day "*a spacious, illustrious physicke-garden, beautifully walled and gated;*" which took place about the year 1640. Forty-five years later the Chelsea gardens were in a flourishing state, and artificial heat was used in green-houses, which seems, by Evelyn's manner of speaking of it to have been then a new introduction. The notice in his *Diary* is as follows:—

I went to see Mr. Wats, keeper of the Apothecaries' Garden of Simples at Chelsea, where there is a collection of innumerable rarities of that sort, particularly, besides rare

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annuals, the tree bearing Jesuits' bark, which has done such wonders in quartan agues. What was very ingenious, was the subterranean heate, conveyed by a stove under the conservatory, all vaulted with brick, so as he has the doores and windowes open in the hardest frost, secluding only the snow.

Both at the gardens of Chelsea and Kew, there are at present very superb collections of plants, and the advance in horticultural knowledge has been exceedingly rapid throughout our country. The simple herbs which find a place alike in splendid botanical gardens, and in the little plat of ground allotted to the humble cottager, and which we intend separately to describe, have many of them received most appropriate and significant names in times past, by which they are still recognised among the lower class of people. The following amusing extract from the *Journal of a Naturalist*, will give a pretty good notion of the old-fashioned plan of naming herbs and plants:—

In ages of simplicity, when every man was the usual dispenser of good or bad, benefit or injury, to his own household or his cattle,—ere the veterinary art was known, or the drugs of other regions introduced,—necessity looked up to the products of its own clime, and the real or fantastical virtues of them were called to the trial, and manifests the reasonableness of bestowing upon plants and herbs such names as might immediately indicate their several uses, or fitness for application; when distinctive characters, had they been given, would have been little attended to; and hence the numbers found favourable to the cure of particular complaints, the ailments of domestic creatures, or deemed injurious to them. Modern science may wrap up the meaning of its epithets in Greek or Latin terms; but in very many cases they are the mere translation of these despised "old vulgar names." What pleasure it must have afforded the poor sufferer in body or in limb—what confidence he must have felt of relief, when he knew that the good neighbour who came to bathe his wounds, or assuage his inward torments, brought with him such things as "all-heal, bruise-wort, gout-weed, fever-few," (fugio,) and twenty other such com fortable mitigators of his afflictions; why their very names would almost charm away the sense of pain! The modern recipe contains no such terms of comfortable assurance: its meanings are all dark to the sufferer; its influence unknown. And then the good herbalists of old professed to have plants which were "all-good;" they could assuage anger by their "loose-strife;" they had "honesty, true-love, and heart's-ease." The cayennes, the soys, the ketchups, and extra-tropical condiments of these days, were not required, when the next thicket would produce "poor man's pepper, sauce-alone, and hedge-mustard;" and the woods and wilds around, when they yielded such delicate viands as "fat-hen, lambs-quarters, way-bread, butter and eggs, with codlins and cream," afforded no despicable bill of fare. No one ever yet thought of accusing our old simplers of avarice, or love of lucre, yet their "thrift" is always to be seen: we have their humble "penny-wort, herb-two-pence, money-wort, silver-weed, and gold." We may smile, perhaps, at the cognomens or commemorations of friendship or worth, recorded by the old simplers,—at the herbs "Bennet, Robert, Christopher, Gerard, or Basil;" but do the names so bestowed by modern science read better, or sound better? it has "Lightfootia, Lapeyrousia, Hedwigia, Schkuhria, Scheuchzeria;" and surely we may admit, in common benevolence, such partialities as "Good King Henry, Sweet William, Sweet Marjory, Sweet Cicely, Lettuce, Mary-gold, and Rose." There are epithets however so very extraordinary that we must consider them as mere perversions, or at least incapable of explanation at this period. The terms of modern science waver daily; names undergo an annual change, fade with the leaf, and give place to others; but the ancient terms, which some may ridicule, have remained for centuries, and will yet remain till nature is swallowed up by art. No; let our ancient herbalists, "a grave and whiskered race," retain the honours due to their labours, which were more needful and important ones at those periods: by them were many casualties and sufferings of man and beast relieved; and by aid of perseverance, better constitutions to act upon, and faith to operate, than we possess, they probably effected cures, which we moderns should fail to accomplish if attempted.

ON WAX FIGURES.

Among the substances which have been employed as materials for forming imitations of animals, flowers, &c., not the least pleasing, in the effects which it produces, is *wax*. There are at the present day, and have been uninterruptedly for many centuries, persons who devote their attention to imitation in wax, such as we have alluded to. We will say a few words respecting the nature of wax, before we describe the mode of casting figures, &c.

Wax is both an animal and vegetable substance; or rather, the purpose to which bees apply it in the formation of their hives, and the supply which we obtain of it through the medium of bees, lead us to regard it almost as an animal substance. But it will be more correct to call it a vegetable product, since it enters into the composition of the pollen of flowers, covers the envelope of the plum, and of other fruits, especially of the berry of the *Myrica cerifera*, and in many instances forms a kind of varnish on the surface of leaves. Wax is an unctuous-feeling substance, partaking of the nature of a fixed oil; it is distinguished from fat and resinous bodies by not readily forming soaps when mixed with alkaline solutions.

As wax possesses both colour and odour in its natural state, means are sought for depriving it of those properties without injuring the peculiar consistence of the wax. This is effected by a process of bleaching in the open air, or sometimes in chlorine gas. To bleach wax, it is gently melted in a caldron, which has a pipe in the bottom through which the melted wax can flow off. From the caldron it passes into a large wooden cylinder, which is kept in constant rotation, and which is also wetted with water: the consequence is that the wax cools in thin layers round the inside of the cylinder, without adhering to it. The thin layers of wax are then taken out, and exposed on frames covered with linen cloth, to the united action of sun, air, and dew. In a few days it will change its colour, and by repeating the same process two or three times, the wax finally becomes entirely white; it is then cast into cakes for use.

This, then, being the substance in question, we find that such a substance was used at a very early period for the preparation of imitative articles. The Greeks employed wax for taking impressions of seals. There was also a separate class of artists called *puppet-makers* by the Greeks, and *sigillarii* by the Romans, who worked principally in wax. The bedrooms of the Greeks were often adorned with wax figures of boys; but the subjects most frequently represented were branches, fruit, flowers, wreaths, and other objects of the vegetable kingdom. It was customary, at the feast in honour of Adonis, to construct gardens, with ornamental flower baskets, &c.; and as this feast occurred too early in the year to admit of real fruit, flowers, &c., being used, artificial ones, made of wax, were used instead. It is said that Heliogabalus set dishes of wax before his guests, in order to tantalize them with representations of all the luxuries in which he revelled.

In more modern times wax figures have been principally employed in illustration of anatomical details. In the palace at Florence are imitations of all parts of the human body, in coloured wax, for the study of anatomy: more than thirty rooms are filled with these wax preparations, as well as with others respecting vegetable substances. It is said the first idea of forming figures of wax was conceived by Nones, of Genoa, an hospital physician, in the seventeenth century. He was about to preserve

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a human body by embalming it; but not being able entirely to prevent putrefaction, he conceived the idea of having the body imitated, as correctly as possible, in wax.

The Abbate Zumbo, a Sicilian, who understood nothing of anatomy, but was skilled in working in wax, imitated the head so perfectly, under the direction of Nones, in coloured wax, that many who saw it mistook it for the real head. Zumbo secretly made another copy, which he took to France, and gave himself out to be the inventor of the art. After the departure of Zumbo, Nones had the whole body imitated in wax by a Frenchman named Delacroix.

The next instance of the kind, which we find recorded, occurred in the year 1721, when La Courege exhibited similar figures in Hamburgh; and in 1737 others were publicly sold in London. About the same period very beautiful figures in wax were made by three Italian artists, Ercole Lelli, Giovanni Manzolini, and Anna Manzolini, his wife; many fine specimens by these persons are, or were, preserved at Bologna, Paris, Turin, and St. Petersburgh. At a later period other artists in this peculiar line appeared in Italy, which seems as if it had been destined for the cradle of artists; among these were Calza, Fillippo, Balugani, Ferrini, and Fontana. The latter carried the art to a high degree of excellence in Florence. He received so many orders, that he employed a large company of anatomists, model-cutters, wax-moulders, and painters; he generally confined his models to representations of the internal parts of the human body.

At Wittenberg, Vogt was accustomed to use, in his lectures, wax preparations in imitation of the fine vessels of the body. In France, Pinson and Laumonier have distinguished themselves in this branch of art. In England, most of our readers are acquainted with exhibitions of wax-work, prepared more for the gratification of public curiosity, than for the advancement or illustration of any particular branch of science. Many of these exhibitions, both in former times, and at the present day, have been distinguished for a good deal of cleverness and ingenuity.

We must now say a few words respecting the mode of preparing figures in wax; and these modes are different, according to the nature of the figure to be made. For some purposes a composition is made of four parts wax, three parts white turpentine, and some olive oil or hog's lard, suitably coloured. The bulk of the figure is formed out of this substance, with the hands; the finer parts being made by means of instruments of various forms: it is, in fact, a process of *modelling*.

In other cases the figure is cast; and we may here allude, by way of illustration, to the mode of casting plaster figures. To make a plaster cast,—of the face, for instance, liquid plaster of Paris is poured on the face; and when it has hardened, it forms a mould, which can be removed from the face, and which in its turn, will serve as a foundation on which liquid plaster of Paris can be poured, in order to produce a cast of the face. A process somewhat similar is observed in preparing waxen casts. The following has been given as a mode of imitating fruit, &c., in wax: bury the fruit half-way in clay; oil its edges, and the extant half of the fruit; then carefully pour on it tempered alabaster, or plaster of Paris, to a considerable thickness. When this has hardened, it makes the half mould, the second half of which may be obtained in the same way. The two parts of the mould being next joined together, a little coloured wax, melted, and brought to a due heat, being poured through a hole, made in any convenient part of the mould, and shaken round in every direction, will represent the original fruit.

In making wax models of the human frame, or any of its parts, a somewhat similar plan is observed. A mould is made of plaster of Paris, in several pieces, and these pieces being fastened together, melted wax is poured into the internal cavity; and the mould being then placed in cold water, the wax is soon solidified; and upon taking the mould to pieces, the wax figure can be taken out. It is said of M. Benoist, that "being by profession a painter, he found the secret of forming moulds on the faces of living persons, even the fairest and most delicate, without any danger either to their health or complexion; in which moulds he cast masks of wax; to which, by his colours, and glass eyes imitated from nature, he gave a sort of life; insomuch as, when clothed in proper habits, they bore such a resemblance, that it was difficult to distinguish between the copy and the original."

A composition of wax and other substances is employed for taking impressions of figures cut in stones. It is prepared thus: an ounce of virgin wax, melted slowly in a copper vessel, and a drachm o sugar candy pounded well, half an ounce of burnt soot, and two or three drops of turpentine. The wax is warmed if a cast is to be taken, and the stone, having been a little moistened, is pressed on it. Gem-cutters use this composition.

Sculptors sometimes form their first models of a composition, consisting of sixteen parts wax, two parts Burgundy pitch, or shoemaker's wax, and one part hog's lard: or of ten parts wax, one turpentine, as much shoemaker's wax, and as much hog's lard. This is melted over a slow fire, and afterwards well stirred and strained, so as to expel all the air.

With regard to the effect of large wax figures on the mind, the following remarks of a modern writer are not without their force: "At present wax is used for imitations of anatomical preparations, or of fruits; it also serves the sculptor for his models and studies; also for little portrait figures in *basso relievo*. The latter can be executed with delicacy and beauty; but wax figures of the size of life, which are often praised for their likeness, overstep the proper limit of the fine arts. They attempt to imitate life too closely, which, in contrast with their ghastly fixedness, has a tendency to make us shudder. In the genuine work of art there is an immortal life in idea, which speaks to our souls without attempting to deceive our senses. The wax figure seems to address the mortal in us; it is a petrified picture of our earthly part. The line at which a work of art should stop, in its approach to nature, is not distinctly marked; but it cannot be overstepped without affecting us disagreeably. Exact imitations, in wax, of vegetable productions, do not produce the same unpleasant emotions as wax images of men and animals, because they have, by nature, a more stationary character."

Do not suffer your mind to brood over the external distinctions of society. Neither seek nor avoid those who are superior in fortune; meet them on the same ground as you do the rest of your fellow-creatures. There is a dignified medium between cringing for notice, and acting like a cat that puts up her back and spits, when she sees a dog at a distance, though it may have no design of coming near to her.—MRS. CHILD.

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